PART THREE | AN EXPANDING NATION

CHAPTER 11
THE SOUTH AND SLAVERY

1790-1860

Secondary Source Reader

Historical scholarship for History B17A

INCLUDED	69 verified selections from 41 supplied monographs.
SOURCE TEXT	Continuous passages from supplied editions, with original note calls and corresponding author notes.
CITATIONS	Chicago Notes and Bibliography; original book locators, never reader page numbers.

Prepared from the supplied editions.

Reader's Guide

Each numbered reading is a continuous excerpt from a historian's work. The main heading gives the monograph title; the metadata identifies the verified original chapter or section and original book locator.

Citing These Readings

Use the full footnote citation the first time you cite a book and the shortened form thereafter. Cite original book pages or verified ebook locators, not reader page numbers. Superscript numbers within excerpts belong to the historian.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.01

Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery

Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman

WORK	Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery
SELECTION	Slavery and the Cliometric Revolution
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 4–5 · Little, Brown (reissued W. W. Norton), 1974.

Excerpt

Slavery was not a system irrationally kept in existence by plantation owners who failed to perceive or were indifferent to their best economic interests. The purchase of a slave was generally a highly profitable investment which yielded rates of return that compared favorably with the most outstanding investment opportunities in manufacturing.

The slave system was not economically moribund on the eve of the Civil War. There is no evidence that economic forces alone would have soon brought slavery to an end without the necessity of a war or some other form of political intervention. Quite the contrary; as the Civil War approached, slavery as an economic system was never stronger and the trend was toward even further entrenchment.

Slaveowners were not becoming pessimistic about the future of their system during the decade that preceded the Civil War. The rise of the secessionist movement coincided with a wave of optimism. On the eve of the Civil War, slaveholders anticipated an era of unprecedented prosperity.

Slave agriculture was not inefficient compared with free agriculture. Economies of large-scale operation, effective management, and intensive utilization of labor and capital made southern slave agriculture 35 percent more efficient than the northern system of family farming.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Fogel, Robert William, and Stanley L. Engerman. *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery*. Boston: Little, Brown, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Robert William Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (Boston: Little, Brown, 1974), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Fogel, *Time on the Cross*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.02

The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860

Calvin Schermerhorn

WORK	The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860
SELECTION	Conclusion
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 242–243 · Yale University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

Isaac Franklin realized that credit and the movement of money were keys to success in the interstate slave trade. As his firm grew, he tapped into New Orleans's commercial network and became a client of Forstall's Union Bank. Cotton bills of exchange and Union Bank drafts decreased the tax on geographic distance that had diminished the returns of small operators like Rives. The chain of credit that linked the Union Bank and New Orleans merchants to New York merchants, bankers, and overseas investors gave Franklin and Armfield competitive advantages when it lowered transaction costs. Lines of credit from property banks in Louisiana and Mississippi also permitted Franklin to extend retail credit to customers, and his firm's size allowed him to accept lower South buyers' bills and other financial paper while offering local banknotes to slaveholders in the Chesapeake. His career illustrates that trust, imagination, and nerve were virtues in the slavery business.

Franklin and Armfield built a thousand-mile slave-supply chain that funneled a thousand or so bondspersons per year from Alexandria, Richmond, and Norfolk to New Orleans and Natchez. Most were embarked on New England–built company ships, which were custom-made for the firm. Hundreds of other captives were marched overland each year between the firm's regional headquarters and passed among company agents. By 1834 Franklin and Armfield was run on railroad-like management principles and behaved like a vertically integrated organization. There were few contemporary industries that required such agile entrepreneurship. Railroads were then in their infancy, and no steamboat line in the country had Franklin and Armfield's geographic reach. Yet even Franklin's forceful leadership could not keep control over the growth that splintered the firm in 1836, the peak year of the interstate slave trade.

The slavery business of the 1840s exemplified the cash nexus that capitalism's radical and conservative critics argued eroded sociality and erased human dignity. But in an irony not lost on captives like Solomon Northup, commercial technology that threatened to sever human ties of community and grind down individual creativity delivered Theophilus Freeman's firm competitive advantages. Freeman partnered with non-relatives, using weak ties of status and geographic advantage to build a supply chain in a mechanical market. Like most innovators, he used technology as part of a business strategy, and the landscape of competition in the early 1840s discouraged vertical organization or the formation of a Franklin-and-Armfield-like interlocking partnership. Freeman's firm relied on railroads and steamboats, and it heartlessly cut costs by kidnapping captives and refusing to spend money mitigating risks to their lives and health.

By the 1850s slavery's capitalism developed into proslavery imperialism, and market efficiencies provided by steam locomotion helped unmoor slave prices from commodity prices. Charles Morgan used transportation technologies as part of an aggressive business strategy to dominate the Gulf Coast steamship trade between New Orleans and the Texas coast, becoming one of the largest shippers of enslaved people in the 1850s United States. Transportation advances annihilated distances among market centers, and steamship merchants were the quintessential capitalists of an era of rampant U.S. expansion and development. The cotton kingdom's dynamism propelled an enterprise in which slavery's expansion fit seamlessly with the disorderly forces of American imperialism. With the proceeds of the Texas trade Morgan built a company capable of exercising power as a nonstate actor when developing the Nicaragua

route. Though he lost the Transit War to Cornelius Vanderbilt, Morgan's Nicaragua scheme was part of a geoeconomic process in which private firms' strategies influenced and even undermined U.S. geopolitical interests.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Schermerhorn, Calvin. *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2015.

Footnote citation:

Calvin Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2015), 242–243.

Shortened citation:

Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*, 242–243.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.03

The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism

Edward E. Baptist

WORK	The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism
SELECTION	Chapter 10, Arms: 1850-1861
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Basic Books, 2014.

Excerpt

Yet since the debt-and-repudiation crisis of the early 1840s, enslaved people were no longer being fully tapped as collateral by world financial markets. One untold story of US prosperity and global economic growth in the 1850s would be the creation of a new set of credit flows that used enslaved people's bodies, lives, and hands as the basis for lending in the cotton economy and profit-sharing by investors outside of it. This new financial ecology replaced the chaos of the 1840s, which in turn had succeeded the credit structures of the 1830s. In the 1830s, the securitization of mortgages on enslaved people through the medium of bonds sold on distant financial markets by plantercontrolled, state-chartered banks had dominated and organized the flow of credit into the southwestern cotton frontier. The new system of the 1850s would finance massive new expansions in the southwestern United States while also allowing world capital markets to take advantage of the massive collateral held by enslavers. But this new system would not give enslavers what they had lost with the panics of 1837 and 1839, and with repudiation, and this was the control over the flow of credit and repayment that enslavers had once been able to exert.

The new financial ecology was brought into being by start-up firms launched by northerners with small amounts of capital, who moved to southern ports in the wake of 1839 to buy cotton. These were companies such as, for instance, Lehman Brothers of Mobile, Alabama. In the disrupted environment left by the destruction of the old mercantile firms, these new organisms acquired an old name, "factor," which had a long history in the Atlantic slave trade, and their role in the cotton economy evolved quickly.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Baptist, Edward E. *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism*. New York: Basic Books, 2014.

Footnote citation:

Edward E. Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism* (New York: Basic Books, 2014), reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

Shortened citation:

Baptist, *The Half Has Never Been Told*, reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.04

The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders

James Oakes

WORK	The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders
SELECTION	The Slaveholders' Pilgrimage
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 93–94 · Alfred A. Knopf (pb. W. W. Norton), 1982.

Excerpt

The town store was the most readily available agency of credit, supplying farmers with groceries, tools, and other goods for twelve farmers and slaveholders who did not own their own cotton gin usually went not to a nearby planter but to the local gin house or country store, where ginning was frequently provided as another service. Finally, store owners marketed the crops of small slaveholders, accumulating large concentrations of cotton and selling it to their own factors. It could be a very lucrative business, and store owners were often among the most influential men in the community. They frequently possessed large numbers of slaves. “Sometimes three or five years business would be so profitable to a sober and prudent merchant as to enable him to retire,” H. S. Fulkerson observed. The store owner would then “sell out to his clerks or go to planting, or to New Orleans to engage in larger operations.” Fulkerson recalled one store in which three sets of partners made their fortunes in less than fifteen years. Thus the one institution that might have brought some stability to the slaveholders’ world was caught up in the same restlessness that kept the slaveholders forever on the move and on the make.[55] Town life was as unstable as rural life in the Old South. Businesses changed hands over and over, particularly among innkeepers. The same credit system that kept the stores going and created so many small fortunes was particularly vulnerable to the boom-and-bust cycle for which the credit system was largely responsible.5° The mobile society which the small town was uniquely capable of serving could also be the town’s nemesis: one sweep of “Alabama fever” might empty a village, leaving a hull where once there had been a _ thriving community.

LIKE A SACRED PILGRIMAGE, westward migration justified itself. In many ways, the perpetual exodus of American slaveholders was a futile effort by a highly structured society to fulfill its own egalitarian ideal. For movement generally necessitated the abandonment of the settled community, the destruction of established relationships, and the reduction of the physical environment to a universal level of subsistence. In part, the slaveholders’ restlessness reveals the ambivalence that arose as slavery drew more and more Southerners out of the subsistence economy and into a market culture.

Author's Notes

55. Lewis E. Atherton, The Southern Country Store, 1800-1860 (Baton Rouge, La., 1949), 21 and passim.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Oakes, James. *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders*. New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1982.

Footnote citation:

James Oakes, *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders* (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1982), 93–94.

Shortened citation:

Oakes, *The Ruling Race*, 93–94.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.05

The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America

Joshua D. Rothman

WORK	The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 3–4 · Basic Books, 2021.

Excerpt

Franklin himself was annoyed but undeterred. The cholera epidemic would pass. Franklin's banks would keep his credit lines open, Armfield and Ballard would keep providing him enslaved people to sell, and white people exercised and indignant about the slave trade and slave traders would eventually let their interests trump their fears and purported ethics. They always did. Franklin admitted nothing. He ignored the mounting anger and claimed that "he was absent from the city at the time these bodies must have been buried," and when the slave-trading ban came down, he moved. He sold his pen and showroom in the city and set up shop about a mile to the east instead, just beyond the city line at a Y-shaped intersection of two major thoroughfares connecting Natchez to cotton lands in the Mississippi countryside. The spot was known as the Forks of the Road. There, the company led by Isaac Franklin, John Armfield, and Rice Ballard reassumed its place as the largest slave-trading business in the country.' In 1808, Congress exercised its constitutional prerogative to end the legal importation of enslaved people from outside the United States. But it did not end domestic slave trading, effectively creating a federally protected internal market for human beings. Already growing by the early nineteenth century, interior commerce in the enslaved was part of a massive forced migration underpinning slavery's expansion in the six decades before the Civil War. Between 1800 and 1860, American slaveholders sent roughly one million Black people from the upper South to the lower South, moving in the span of sixty years over twice as many people as were transported in two centuries to mainland North America via the transatlantic slave trade from Africa. They were responsible for the movement of millions more within individual states. By the time they were through, the number of enslaved people in the United States had more than quadrupled, the number of slave states below the Mason-Dixon Line had nearly doubled, and slavery had crossed the Mississippi River and the Rio Grande.® The extension of slavery, seen across the Atlantic world in the nineteenth century, both furthered and was nurtured by technological, economic, political, and ideological changes that ushered in the modern age. Central to the process in the United States were the appearance of the cotton gin and the steam-powered sugar mill, the introduction of steamboats and railroads, the dispossession and expulsion of southeastern Indian nations, the rise of an imperialist and racist white male democracy, and the evolution of an interconnected system of national markets. As these developments converged with the maturation of transatlantic industrial textile production and global credit systems, demand for the enslaved, particularly in cotton and sugar plantation districts of the lower South, escalated dramatically. So did their market value. By 1860, four million enslaved people in the United States were a pillar of American prosperity, cumulatively worth more than the whole country had invested in manufacturing, railroads, and banks put together.' White migrants to the lower South sometimes satisfied their own demand as they moved, collectively bringing with them several hundred thousand people they already enslaved. Domestic slave traders satisfied the rest, rushing to fill the market space left by the federal prohibition on imports of slaves from overseas. Capitalizing especially on a declining tobacco economy that yielded a "surplus" of slaves in the Chesapeake states of Maryland and Virginia, traders trafficked over half a million men, women, and children across state lines, locking them in holds of brigs and schooners, securing them on flatboats and steamboats and railroad cars, and fettering them with shackles for months-long marches of a thousand miles or more.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rothman, Joshua D. *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America*. New York: Basic Books, 2021.

Footnote citation:

Joshua D. Rothman, *The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America* (New York: Basic Books, 2021), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Rothman, *The Ledger and the Chain*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.06

Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore

Seth Rockman

WORK	Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 5–6 · Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

This interrelated process has consequences for how scholars narrate American economic development and date the emergence of a recognizably capitalist society. Historians have generally avoided rigid theoretical definitions of capitalism but tend instead to "know it when we see it." Different historians have dated capitalism's arrival to Alexander Hamilton's program of national finance; to the technological innovations that jump-started manufacturing in places like Pawtucket and Lowell; to the immersion of rural families in an expanding consumer culture; to the intensification of commercial agriculture; and to the rise of new men liberated from the artificial hierarchies of the colonial era, from aristocratic scorn for work, and from cultural prohibitions against self-interest. The advance of capitalism in the early republic period is variously symbolized by an explosion of canal and turnpike construction linking distant regions in a common market, by the proliferation of banks and the circulation of cash as the medium of exchange, and by the reconfiguration of law to facilitate the granting of corporate charters and sanctify property rights.[9] For all their variety, scholarly accounts of early republic economic change have been content to define capitalism by its manifestations and effects rather than by its underlying social relations. Too often capitalism appears as a synonym for market exchange and not as a political economy that dictated who worked where, on what terms, and to whose benefit. But to follow the careers of low-end laborers through an early republic boomtown like Baltimore lays bare those rules and the unequal relationships of power that propelled economic development in the decades following the American Revolution.'

The aspect of capitalism that took the longest to arrive was a "free market" in labor, where workers could choose their own employers, receive cash wages for their time, quit at will, and toil free of physical violence. In the Marxist tradition, this system of free labor is the sine qua non of capitalism, and its halting, inconsistent, and incomplete arrival to the American workplace has long confounded efforts to understand the economy of the early republic United States."

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Rockman, Seth. *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore*. Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009.

Footnote citation:

Seth Rockman, *Scraping By: Wage Labor, Slavery, and Survival in Early Baltimore* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2009), 5–6.

Shortened citation:

Rockman, *Scraping By*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.07

Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds.

WORK	Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development
SELECTION	Chapter 1, Toward a Political Economy of Slave Labor
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 42–43 · University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

“A man who has arrived at the age of twenty- fi ve, before he sees a cotton fi eld,” Ball deci ded, “ will never, in the language of the overseers, become a crack picker.”[28] Yet many millions of enslaved people did become crack pickers. Th e amount of cotton enslaved people harvested increased dramatically over time. In 1801, 28 pounds per day per picker was the average in the South Carolina labor camps for which we have rec ords. In 1846, the hands on a Mississippi labor camp averaged 341 pounds each on a good day, and in the next de cade averages climbed higher still.[29] A study of planter account books that recorded daily picking totals for individual enslaved people on labor camps across the South fi nds a growth in daily picking averages of some 400 percent between 1800 and 1860, or a 2.[1] percent growth in productivity each year.[30]

Th e increase in the effi ciency of cotton picking was extremely high, comparable in magnitude to key mea sures of growing effi ciency in the British textile factory, the breeding ground of the factory system’s technological innovations. From 1819 to 1860, the productivity of workers in Manchester spinning mills increased by a little less than 400 percent, while those in weaving mills improved by over 600 percent.[31]

Yet until very recently, most historians missed the increase in cottonpicking effi ciency. And this means they missed a secret at the heart of the modern world’s emergence.[32] Recently, however, two economists who noticed the increase and confi rmed it by creating a massive database from the thousands of daily cotton weigh- ins recorded in enslavers’ cotton- picking ledgers tried to off er an explanation. Th ey rejected the idea that enslavers implemented a new labor system to extract continual gains in cotton picking, or that enslaved people worked faster and with greater effi ciency. Instead, they postulated that a crucial shift in planter- directed “biotechnology”— new va ri e ties of short- staple cotton seeds, especially, from the 1820s on, a breed called Petit Gulf, adapted for heavy growth and “pickability”— was responsible for transforming the effi ciency of cotton harvesting.[33] But their argument cannot explain all the available facts.

Th e inadequacies of the economists’ explanation emerge as soon as one begins to look at the very cotton rec ord books on which the claim for pickability is based. Th ese rec ords mea sure nothing about seeds and every thing about the per for mance of individual laborers. Yet to explain the per for mance thus recorded, the economists uncritically reproduce the seeds- did-it assertion from the claims of planters who dabbled in seed dealing.[34] Self- advertisement usually does not make the most objective of sources about products, as other cotton planters who were skeptical about such claims often pointed out.[35] Th e economists also make a series of logical errors in their attempt to draw the conclusion that seeds, and not an increased intensity of labor or new systems of labor, led to the rise in cotton picking rates.[36]

Author's Notes

1. Louis A. Pérez, ed., Impressions of Cuba in the Nineteenth Century: Th e Travel Diary of Joseph J. Dimock (Wilmington, Del.: Scholarly Resources, 1998), xii; Laird W. Bergad, Cuban Rural Society in the Nineteenth Century: Th e Social and Economic History of Monoculture in Matanzas (Prince ton, N.J.: Prince ton University Press, 1990), 322n28. See also Stephen M.

28. Ball, Slavery in the United States, 217; see also Mary Ker to Isaac Baker, November 19, 1820, Ker Family Papers, SHC; J. S. Haywood to Dear Sister, May 3, 1839, folder 156, Haywood Family Papers, SHC; A. K. Barlow to J.J. Phillips, April 23, 1849, folder 1, Ivan P. Battle Papers, SHC; James Harriss to Th omas Harriss, September 14, 1845, Th omas W. Harriss Papers, Duke; John Knight to William Beall, February 7, 1844, and April 14, 1844, John Knight Papers, Duke; Robert B. Beverley to Robert Beverley, September 3, 1833, sec. 13, Beverley Family Papers, Virginia Historical Society (hereafter VHS).

29. Alan Olmstead and Paul Rhode, "Biological Innovation and Productivity Growth in the Antebellum Cotton Economy," NBER Working Paper 14142 (Cambridge, Mass.: National Bureau of Economic Research, 2008), 22; James Magruder Account Book and Plantation Journal, 1796–1818, Magruder Papers, RASP, ser. N, reel 12; R. & M. Timberlake to Dear Mother and Brother, December 26, 1829, Neal Family Papers, SHC; Wm. R. Arick to Joseph S. Copes, October 22, 1846, folder 82, Joseph Slemmons Copes Papers, Special Collections, Howard- Tilton Library, Tulane University; see also Elley Plantation Book, 1855–1856, RASP, ser. N, reel 10; early daily totals from Charles Rowand, "Cotton," American Farmer 3, no. 38 (December 14, 1821): 298; Ball, Slavery in the United States, 186–87; Magnolia Plantation Journal, August 31, 1838, folder 429, Ballard Papers, SHC; 1835 numbers from Burrell Fox to Eliza Neal, September 25, 1835; 100–30 pounds per day in 1829 from R. and M. Timberlake to Dear Mother and Brother, December 26, 1829, both Neal Family Papers, SHC; see Phanor Prudhomme Cotton Book, 1836, folder 267, and Phanor Prudhomme Cotton Book, 1852, folder 271, both Prudhomme Family Papers, SHC; D. W. Mc Ken zie to Duncan McLaurin, September 26, 1840, 357 suffi cient statistical evidence with which to obtain a reasonably sound overall view of overseas trade and shipping from 1775–1790," thus making the sort of colony or port- specifi c type of analy sis provided here extremely diffi cult. See James F. Shepherd and Gary M. Walton, "Economic Change after the American Revolution: Pre- and Post- War Comparisons of Maritime Shipping and Trade," Explorations in Economic History 13 (1976): 397–422, quotation at 397.

30. Olmstead and Rhode, "Biological Innovation and Productivity Growth," 1–2.

31. D. A. Farnie, Th e En glish Cotton Industry and the World Market, 1815–1896 (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1979), 199.

32. Fogel et al., eds., Without Consent or Contract, vol. 1, Technical Papers, 72–80; John Olson, "Clock Time Versus Real Time: A Comparison of the Lengths of the Northern and Southern Agricultural Work Years," ibid., 216–40; Metzer, "Rational Management," ibid., 191– 215; Robert W. Fogel and Stanley L. Engerman, "Explaining the Relative Effi ciency of Slave Agriculture in the Antebellum South," American Economic Review 67 (1977): 275–96.

33. Olmstead and Rhode, "Biological Innovation and Productivity Growth." Th ey retell the argument in a series of articles, but the essence of it is contained in the paper cited here. J. A. Turner, Th e Cotton Planter's Manual: Being a Compilation of Facts From the Best Authorities on the Culture of Cotton; Its Natu ral History, Chemical Analy sis, Trade, and Consumption; And Embracing a History of Cotton and the Cotton Gin (New York: O. Judd and Co., 1857), 36, 99–102; John Hebron Moore, Agriculture in Ante-Bellum Mississippi (New York: Bookman Associates, 1958), 27–36, 145–60.

34. Planters wrote obsessively in their agricultural publications about the quest for new cotton va ri e ties, which some selected and marketed to peers under iconic brand names such as "Mastodon," "100 Seed," "Sugar Loaf," and "Prolifi c." Turner, Th e Cotton Planter's Manual, 99–102. A later (1865) edition of Turner's book reproduces an 1848 claim about a new seed "with extraordinary picking qualities.... Th ere are many planters who put the gain at fi fty, seventyfi ve, and even one hundred per cent." Not four hundred percent, he's trying to sell it— and he hedges even further: "I do not promise that much." Turner, Th e Cotton Planter's Manual (New York: O. Judd and Co., 1865), 105.

35. Historians have studied the language of "improving" and "scientifi c" planters as an anxious rhe toric of modernity and control. In this discourse, planters credited themselves with experiments and decisions about techniques of cultivation, as well as the bio-engineering of plants, while completely obscuring the real ity that forced labor performed the work. Th e columns of agricultural improvement journals hide the fact that in real life, enslavers were measur ing not the output of seeds but the output of enslaved human beings laboring under threat of vio lence. Johnson, River of Dark Dreams, is particularly perceptive on this point, but see also Chaplin, An Anxious Pursuit; and Drew Gilpin Faust, "Th e Rhe toric and Ritual of Agricultural Reform in Antebellum South Carolina," Journal of Southern History 45, no. 3 (1979): 541–68. In their uncritical reproduction of planters' claims, Olmstead and Rhode, in the essay cited here and in succeeding articles, paint a picture of planters as continually and consciously adapting and innovating the cotton seeds. Th eir story swallows planter rhe toric, and also reproduces the general story- line of books and articles written by traditionalist agricultural historians who wanted to fi nd the sources of agricultural pro gress for the rest of the United States in improved seeds, methods of fertilizing, and machinery— exactly the kinds of things that the state universities that sponsored them promised legislatures they were creating in their departments of agriculture and agronomy.

36. For instance, the economists compare the picking rates in the new cotton districts, which grew and harvested short- staple cotton (the kind used by most textile mills), with the picking rates of a handful of Sea Island cotton plantations in the Carolina Lowcountry. Th e picking rates in the fi rst group rose over time, while the latter stayed fl at. Th ey assume the same or ga ni za tion of labor in both sites, and thus attribute the increase to a diff erence in 313 of the Black Radical Tradition, 2nd ed. (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000), and Robin D. G. Kelley, Freedom Dreams: Th e Black Radical Imagination (Boston: Beacon Press, 2002).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Beckert, Sven, and Seth Rockman, eds. *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Footnote citation:

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds., *Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016), 42–43.

Shortened citation:

Beckert, *Slavery's Capitalism*, 42–43.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.08

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

WORK	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom
SELECTION	Introduction: Boom
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 11–12 · Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

Much of the history of the political economy of slavery in the Mississippi Valley was framed by the tension between "the South" as a region of the global economy and "the South" as a region of the United States of America—by the tension between the promiscuity of capital and the limits prescribed by the territorial sovereignty of the United States. As Adam Smith wrote, merchant capital was by nature mobile: it "seems to have no fixed residence anywhere, but may wander from place to place, according as it may either buy cheap or sell dear."[23] Rather than inhabiting space, merchant capital made it, fabricating connections and annihilating distances according to rates of interest and freight, the "laws" of supply and demand. The laws of the United States, however, sought to channel and limit the accumulation of capital in ways that many in the Mississippi Valley increasingly came to believe divested them of their birthright—as slaveholders, as Americans, as whites, as men. To imagine and represent the global span of this economy, pro-slavery po litical economists (especially after the Depression of 1837) seized upon another metric: the fact that "the South" provided two-thirds of the nation's exports, but consumed only one-tenth of its imports. Rather than as a measure of the degraded condition of Southern slaves—Southern demand for goods was low, it could be argued, because slaveholders continually pushed downward upon the subsistence levels of their slaves (which is to say one-half of the population of the states of Mississippi and Louisiana)—or even of the comparative underdevelopment of Southern manufacturing, the defenders of slavery interpreted this imbalance as evidence of the degraded condition of slaveholders. Two issues were of particular (not to say obsessive) concern. The first was slaveholders' vulnerability to tariffs, which, defenders of slavery argued, transformed Southern agricultural wealth into a subsidy to Northern manufacturers. Second were unscrupulous financiers and merchants, who sold slaveholders' cotton short and siphoned their profits. Increasingly, pro-slavery political economists looked to free trade—to a relation with the global economy unmediated by the territorial sovereignty of the United States—as the solution to Southern economic disadvantage. All of this leaves us with two sets of questions. First, how did the global 12 river of dark dreams lllllllllllllllllllllll reach of the cotton economy—in which millions of pounds of cotton and billions of dollars were annually traded, in which credit chased cotton from the metropolitan banks of Europe to every plantation outpost of the Mississippi Valley and then back again, in which the rate of exploitation of slaves in a field in Mississippi, measured in pounds per day, was keyed to the standards of the Exchange in Liverpool and the labor of the mill-hands in Manchester—how did this global economic formation result in one of the most powerfully sectionalist accounts of political economy in the nineteenth century: the Confederate States of America? And second, perhaps even more perplexing, how did this regionalist account of political economy come to seek its resolution in globalism? How did those who saw merchants as bloodsuckers and interlopers come to see more trade rather than less as the solution to their problems? How did Valley cotton planters who were daily exposed to the risks of transactions that occurred thousands of miles away, whose year's "work" would be consumed in a matter of minutes due to a decision made in an unknown warehouse by an unknown merchant (covering his own unknown obligations), come to seek an even more direct exposure to the global economy? How did the defenders of the Mississippi Valley's Cotton Kingdom become free traders□ —and then imperialists? It is easy to see in retrospect that overinvestment in slaves, overproduction of cotton, and overreliance on credit made Valley planters vulnerable to precisely the sort of crisis they experienced during the Depression of 1837. Cotton planting was extraordinarily capital intensive, and most of planters' money was tied up in land and slaves. For the money they needed to get through the year—for liquidity—they relied on credit. And to get credit, they had to plant cotton. Their situation—the fact that they were "overaccumulated" in a single sector of the economy—was expressed in the antebellum commonplace repeated to the Northern traveler Edward Russell as he made his way up the Red River in 1854. Planters, a man told Russell, "care for nothing but to buy Negroes to plant cotton & raise cotton to buy Negroes."[24]

Author's Notes

23. Adam Smith, An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations (London, 1776), bk. 2, ch. 5, para. 14.

24. Edward Russell, Journal, January 31 and February 4, 1854, Historic New Orleans Collection, New Orleans, LA. See, generally, Eugene Genovese, The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South (New York: Vintage, 1965).

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

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Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom* (Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013), 11–12.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 11–12.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.09

Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market

Walter Johnson

WORK	Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market
SELECTION	Introduction: A Person with a Price
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 15–16 · Harvard University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

Maintaining these separate perspectives on the trade throughout the book, especially in accounts of the relentless objectification to which slaves in the market were subjected, can make tough reading. But it was out of the clash of conflicting perspectives that the history of the slave trade was daily made. As they went to the slave market, for example, potential buyers might have been self-consciously playing a part in the historical project of making manifest the expansionary destiny of the antebellum regime, or they might have made their slave-market choices with an eye toward crop calendars and cycles of commercial specula tion, or they might have simply imagined their presence in the market as part of their own biography-the stages of a slaveholding life cycle marked out in'purchased slaves. Slaves, on the other hand, might have framed the trade in terms of the sinfulness of slaveholders and their own providential hopes for salvation through suffering, or they might have seen their own sale as part of the larger demographic transformation of the slave communities of both the upper and lower South, or they might have imagined the trade in personal terms-the waiting to be sold which suffused every moment of the present with the fear of an unknown future, the heart-rending pain of losing loved ones to the traders, loss and survival in the shadow of the slave market. These various ways of imagining history-providential, political, economic, communal, biographical, and so on-were layered and intertwined through the daily process of the slave trade. 34 Many slaves trades, many versions of what was happening, met and were contested in every slave sale.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Johnson, Walter. *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999.

Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999), 15–16.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *Soul by Soul*, 15–16.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.10

Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese

WORK	Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South
SELECTION	Southern Women, Southern Households
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 55–56 · University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Excerpt

The South had a slave system within a capitalist mode of production. Or, more simply put, the South was in but not of the bourgeois world. The tentacles of capitalism permeated southern society, but bourgeois social relations did not reign and did not dominate southern thought and feeling. Antebellum slave society can, as Eugene Genovese and I have argued at some length, most instructively be viewed as a discrete social formation that originated in the determination to provide labor for plantation agriculture; it emerged during the expansion of the capitalist world market, but before the triumph of the market in labor-power that would characterize the exponentially accelerating growth of industrial capitalism. In this perspective, its social relations of production developed as "modern" relative to European feudalism, and as "retrogressive" relative to emerging capitalism.[32]

Author's Notes

32. PMC, p. 145 (29 Aug. 1861).

Chicago Citations

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Fox-Genovese, Elizabeth. *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Footnote citation:

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1988), 55–56.

Shortened citation:

Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household*, 55–56.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.11

Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made
SELECTION	Part I, Of the Willing and the Obedient
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 4–5 · Pantheon Books, 1974.

Excerpt

The Old South, black and white, created a historically unique kind of paternalist society. To insist upon the centrality of class relations as manifested in paternalism is not to slight the inherent racism or to deny the intolerable contradictions at the heart of paternalism itself. Imamu Amiri Baraka captures the tragic irony of paternalist social relations when he writes that slavery "was, most of all, a paternal institution" and yet refers to "the filthy paternalism and cruelty of slavery."' Southern paternalism, like every other paternalism, had little to do with Ole Massa's ostensible benevolence, kindness, and good cheer. It grew out of the necessity to discipline and morally justify a system of exploitation. It did encourage kindness and affection, but it simultaneously encouraged cruelty and hatred. The racial distinction between master and slave heightened the tension inherent in an unjust social order.

Southern slave society grew out of the same general historical conditions that produced the other slave regimes of the modern world. The rise of a world market—the development of new tastes and of manufactures dependent upon non-European sources of raw materials—encouraged the rationalization of colonial agriculture under the ferocious domination of a few Europeans. African labor provided the human power to fuel the new system of production in all the New World slave societies, which, however, had roots in different European experiences and emerged in different geographical, economic, and cultural conditions. They had much in common, but each was unique.'

Theoretically, modern slavery rested, as had ancient slavery, on the idea of a slave as instrumentum vocale—a chattel, a possession, a thing, a mere extension of his master's will. But the vacuousness of such pretensions had been exposed long before the growth of New World slave societies.? The closing of the ancient slave trade, the political crisis of ancient civilization, and the subtle moral pressure of an ascendant Christianity had converged in the early centuries of the new era to shape a seigneurial world in which lords and serfs (not slaves) faced each other with reciprocal demands and expectations. This land-oriented world of medieval Europe slowly forged the traditional paternalist ideology to which the southern slaveholders fell heir.

The slaveholders of the South, unlike those of the Caribbean, increasingly resided on their plantations and by the end of the eighteenth century had become an entrenched regional ruling class. The paternalism encouraged by the close living of masters and slaves was enormously reinforced by the closing of the African slave trade, which compelled masters to pay greater attention to the reproduction of their labor force. Of all the slave societies in the New World, that of the Old South alone maintained a slave force that reproduced itself. Less than 400,000 imported Africans had, by 1860, become an American black population of more than 4,000,000.* A paternalism accepted by both masters and slaves—but with radically different interpretations—afforded a fragile bridge across the intolerable contradictions inherent in a society based on racism, slavery, and class exploitation that had to depend on the willing reproduction and productivity of its victims. For the slaveholders paternalism represented an attempt to overcome the fundamental contradiction in slavery: the impossibility of the slaves' ever becoming the things they were supposed to be. Paternalism defined the involuntary labor of the slaves as a legitimate return to their masters for protection and direction. But, the masters' need to see their slaves as acquiescent human beings constituted a moral victory for the slaves themselves. Paternalism's insistence upon mutual obligations—duties, responsibilities, and ultimately even rights—implicitly recognized the slaves' humanity.

Chicago Citations

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Genovese, Eugene D. *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made*. New York: Pantheon Books, 1974.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York: Pantheon Books, 1974), 4–5.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 4–5.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.12

The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 3–4 · Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Excerpt

These studies fall under the rubric of "the political economy of slavery," not "the economics of slavery," because they are concerned less with economics or even economic history as generally understood than with the economic aspect of a society in crisis. They argue that slavery gave the South a social system and a civilization with a distinct class structure, political community, economy, ideology, and set of psychological patterns and that, as a result, the South increasingly grew away from the rest of the nation and from the rapidly developing sections of the world. That this civilization had difficulty in surviving during the nineteenth century—a bourgeois century if any deserves the name—raises only minor problems. The difficulty, from this point of view, was neither economic, nor political, nor moral, nor ideological; it was all of these, which constituted manifestations of a fundamental antagonism between modern and premodern worlds. The premodern quality of the Southern world was imparted to it by its dominant slaveholding class. Slavery has existed in many places, side by side with other labor systems, without producing anything like the civilization of the South. Slavery gave the South a special way of life because it provided the basis for a regional social order in which the slave labor system could dominate all others. Southern slavery was not "mere slavery'—to recall Louis Hartz's luckless term—but the foundation on which rose a powerful and remarkable social class: a class constituting only a tiny portion of the white population and yet so powerful and remarkable as to try, with more success than our neo-abolitionists care to see, to build a new, or rather to rebuild an old, civilization.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Genovese, Eugene D. *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South*. 2nd ed. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Footnote citation:

Eugene D. Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South* (2nd ed. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1989), 3–4.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery*, 3–4.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.13

The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 7–8 · University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Excerpt

The contradictions in the slaveholders' interpretation of history and indeed in their self-image seem apparent now but were rarely noticed then. Even their northern adversaries, who might have pummeled them badly on these matters, usually forfeited the chance by settling for charges of hypocrisy and irrationality, when they bothered to notice at all. The economic freedom that feudalism had stifled and that propelled the extraordinary progress of the modern age could hardly be separated historically or analytically from the extension of freedom to the laboring classes — to that emancipation of the serfs the southerners harshly criticized. The southern intellectuals knew that the extension of freedom and the demise of personal servitude held the secret of the progress and modernity they claimed to represent. They invoked the racial argument: Europeans constituted a superior race 8 The Slaveholders' Dilemma fit for freedom after a suitable period of Christian tutelage. But, unable to sustain their larger argument on racial grounds, they repeatedly returned to the emancipation of the serfs as the primary cause of the social crisis that threatened to wreck the modern world and plunge it back toward barbarism.

The slaveholders never came to terms with the ambiguity of their interpretation of the Middle Ages or with the ambivalence toward historical progress that it exposed. They tried. But the ambiguity and ambivalence arose again and again in their critique of the modern bourgeois societies and in their defense of slavery. They earnestly sought to champion a modernity purged of distortions and heresy and to present themselves as the carriers of a well-ordered progress in human affairs. In this respect they shared much with transatlantic conservatives of many types. But in bravely meeting the challenge to assess the role of freedom in history, they struck out on a path of their own. At the end of that path they encountered an unforeseen dilemma and a Hobson's choice between grim political alternatives.

Chicago Citations

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Genovese, Eugene D. *The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860*. Columbia: University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

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Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Slaveholders' Dilemma*, 7–8.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.14

A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War

John Majewski

WORK	A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War
SELECTION	Urban Development in Philadelphia and Eastern Virginia
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 160–161 · Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Excerpt

Slavery also discouraged the development of towns, thus putting an additional brake on the growth of consumer demand. Because slaveholders had an economic incentive to keep their workers busy all year around, many plantations were often diversified enterprises that grew their own food, employed their own carpenters, and owned their own mills. Smaller farmers needing such services often turned to their wealthier neighbors to hire out a skilled artisan or utilize the plantation's blacksmith.[67] Virginia's towns, therefore, had relatively little to do with the day-to-day operations of a plantation outside of marketing its crops. The relative underdevelopment of small towns in the Old Dominion - recall that even thriving Charlottesville fell well behind Carlisle in population growth - translated into another missing layer of consumer demand.[68]

Geography only made things worse. The confluence of the Delaware and Schuylkill Rivers encouraged the growth of one large city to dominate eastern Pennsylvania, but the parallel rivers in Virginia led to the formation of many smaller cities, each serving its own riparian hinterland. With a rural population spread over a wade area, transportation costs to a central city would have been high. It therefore made economic sense to have a number of smaller cities to service Virginia's plantation economy. Alexandria, Norfolk, Lynchburg, Petersburg, and Richmond thus divided the Old Dominion's potential market - which was already small to begin with - into a number of smaller markets. The dynamic interplay of population density and geography helps explain not only the low overall rate of urbanization in Virginia, but also why the state's small urban population was divided into small cities instead of one large one.

One important question remains to be answered. If slavery stunted the growth of Virginia's cities, then how did Baltimore grow so rapidly in the nineteenth century? Baltimore became one of the largest cities in antebellum America because it had a special resource that Virginia's cities lacked: excellent access to markets in free-labor areas. Maryland, where slavery was relatively weak.[69] In the 1830s and 1840s, the city's most important transportation projects, including the Chesapeake and Ohio Canal and the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad, increased the size of the city's free-labor hinterland. Baltimore's growth provides an instructive lesson: A large city could develop in a slave state as long as it had a free-labor hinterland.

Author's Notes

67. On the relative self-sufficiency of the plantation, see Anderson and Gallman's classic "Slaves as Fixed Capital" as well as Fogel, Without Consent or Contract, pp. ioq-10. Fogel adds an interesting twist to this argument. By limiting the number of millers, merchants, and other rural entrepreneurs, slavery might well have also limited the growth of entrepreneurial talent that could transfer resources out of agriculture and into industry.

68. The relative absence of small towns within the South is documented in Elkins and McKitrick, "A Meaning for Turner's Frontier," pp. 341-42. Urban Development in Philadelphia and Eastern Virginia 161 in Virginia, but also why the state's small urban population was divided into small cities instead of one large one. One important question remains to be answered. If slavery stunted the growth of Virginia's cities, then how did Baltimore grow so rapidly in the nineteenth century? Baltimore became one of the largest cities in antebellum America because it had a special resource that Virginia's cities lacked: excellent access to markets in free-labor areas. The Susquehanna River, although often treacherous to navigate, allowed Baltimore's merchants to tap central and southern

Pennsylvania, while a network of turnpikes connected the city to western Maryland, where slavery was relatively weak.69 In the 1830s and 1840s, the city's most important transportation projects, including the Chesapeake and Ohio Canal and the Baltimore and Ohio Railroad, increased the size of the city's free-labor hinterland. Baltimore's growth provides an instructive lesson: A large city could develop in a slave state as long as it had a free-labor hinterland. Rich mond and the Limitations of Virginia's Industrialization Without a hinterland similar to Philadelphia or Baltimore, industrial and urban growth proceeded slowly in the Old Dominion. Yet even if potential markets were small in Virginia, what prevented Old Dominion's manufacturers from at least supplying their own markets? The question is important because some historians have argued that by 1860 the South had large enough home markets to support a large textile industry.70 What this static analysis ignores is that the southern population, spread out over a wide area, was not large enough to encourage the concentration of industry with its attendant advantages. Virginia firms, even with lower transportation costs, had trouble competing in their own state without access to the same agglomerated pools of supplies, workers, and technology available in Philadelphia and other northern cities. The example of Richmond highlights the disadvantages of Virginia manufacturers. In the 1850s, Richmond had earned its reputation as the "Lowell of the South." Railroads significantly strengthened ties to central and southwestern Virginia, thereby increasing trade and the potential market for manufactured goods. Especially impressive was the massive Tredegar Iron Works, which produced railroad tracks, large cannons, and other iron goods. Under the aggressive leadership ofjoseph Anderson, the company grew from a fledgling enterprise in

69. Fields, Slavery and Freedom on the Middle Ground, p. 42.

Chicago Citations

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Majewski, John. *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia before the Civil War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

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Shortened citation:

Majewski, *A House Dividing*, 160–161.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.15

The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	The Political Economy of Slavery: Studies in the Economy and Society of the Slave South
SELECTION	The Setting
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 24–25 · Wesleyan University Press, 1989.

Excerpt

The slaveholders feared a strong urban bourgeoisie, which might make common cause with its Northern counterpart. They feared a white urban working class of unpredictable social tendencies. In general, they distrusted the city and saw in it something incongruous with their local power and status arrangements.'* The small slaveholders, as well as the planters, resisted the assumption of a heavy tax burden to assist manufacturers, and as the South fell further behind the North in industrial development more state aid was required to help industry offset the Northern advantages of scale, efficiency, credit relations, and business reputation. Slavery led to the rapid concentration of land and wealth and prevented the expansion of a Southern home market. Instead of providing a basis for industrial growth, the Southern countryside, economically dominated by a few large estates, provided only a limited market for industry. Data on the cotton textile factories almost always reveal that Southern producers aimed at supplying slaves with the cheapest and coarsest kind of cotton goods. Even so, local industry had to compete with Northern firms, which sometimes shipped direct and sometimes established Southern branches. William Gregg, the South's foremost industrialist, understood the modest proportions of the Southern market and warned manufacturers against trying to produce exclusively for their local areas. His own company at Graniteville, South Carolina, produced fine cotton goods that sold much. better in the North than in the South. Gregg was an unusually able man, and his success in selling to the North was a personal triumph. When he had to evaluate the general position of Southern manufacturers, he asserted that he was willing to stake his reputation on their ability to compete with Northerners in the production of "coarse cotton fabrics."' Some Southern businessmen, especially those in the border states, did good business in the North. Louisville tobacco and hemp manufacturers sold much of their output in Ohio. Some producers of iron and agricultural implements sold in nearby Northern cities. This kind of market was precarious. As Northern competitors rose and the market shrank, Southern producers had to rely on the narrow and undependable Southern market.'® Well before 1840 iron-manufacturing establishments in the Northwest provided local farmers with excellent markets for grain, vegetables, molasses, and work animals. During the antebellum period and after, the grain growers of America found their market at home. America's rapid industrial development offered farmers a magnificently expanding urban market, and not until much later did they come to depend to any important extent on exports. To a small degree the South benefited in this way. By 1840 the tobacco-manufacturing industry began to absorb more tobacco than was being exported, and the South's few industrial centers provided markets for local grain and vegetable growers. Since the South could not undertake a general industrialization, few urban centers rose to provide substantial markets for farmers and planters. Southern grain growers, except for those close to the cities of the free states, had to be content with the market offered by planters who preferred to specialize in cotton or sugar and buy foodstuffs, The restricted rations of the slaves limited this market, which inadequate transportation further narrowed. It did not pay the planters to appropriate state funds to build a transportation system into the back country, and any measure to increase the economic strength of the back-country farmers seemed politically dangerous to the aristocracy of the Black Belt. The farmers of the back country remained isolated, self-sufficient, and politically, economically, and socially backward.

Chicago Citations

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Footnote citation:

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Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Political Economy of Slavery*, 24–25.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.16

A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy

Fred Bateman and Thomas Weiss

WORK	A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy
SELECTION	A Deplorable Scarcity
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 160–161 · University of North Carolina Press, 1981.

Excerpt

Estimates of scale parameters in manufacturing production functions reveal little or no advantage to firms larger than those typical of the southern economy. In no region were firms producing in the range of increasing returns to scale in 1850, while in 1860 constant returns characterized production in the South and West. Southern manufacturers had apparently taken advantage of whatever scale economies existed and had attained sizes sufficient to permit production that, ceteris paribus, would have been competitive with firms outside the region. Nor would labor and capital resource availability have hindered additional industrial growth. Much has been written about the incapabilities of enslaved labor, the effect slavery had on the immigration of workers, and the low quality of the native white labor force. Capital formation has been seen as a problem resulting from the peculiarly undeveloped nature of the southern capital market, the low saving rate of the planters who consumed conspicuously, or the capital absorption effects of the slave labor system. These claims appear to have been exaggerated. Some slaves did work in manufacturing establishments and many more were capable of it. Not generally deterred from engaging in industrial jobs, poor whites often proved to be suitable mill or factory workers. There may have been less immigration to the South than elsewhere, but given the existence of the large slave labor supply, the region incurred no disadvantage. Indeed, the advantage that could accrue to a region possessing a larger body of unskilled labor lay with the South. The arguments about capital have been equally misleading. Slave labor did not retard nonagricultural investment by tying up capital. In fact the contrary is equally likely—that the ownership of slaves generated a higher saving and investment rate. Not a drain on investment, the purchase of slaves involved a transfer of ownership and had at best a minor impact on the quantity of savings available for industrial capital accumulation. Furthermore, if income distribution in the South were more unequal than elsewhere, the saving rate could have been higher than in other locations, placing southern manufacturing in a relatively advantageous position. Why then did the South fail to grasp these opportunities? The answer appears to lie with the planter class, specifically in its members' entrepreneurial attitudes and decisions, especially their behavior toward risk. Potentially a great source for investible funds, the planters failed to respond adequately to the higher returns available in manufacturing. To some extent they were not unique, for manufacturing investments, being risky, would have required higher yields to attract funds. But even after risk is taken into account, the manufacturing returns should have been judged superior by shrewd investors. More industrial investment was justified. Given the possibility of combining manufacturing investments with some riskless assets, more individuals should have chosen southern manufacturing over agriculture. That they did not suggests that southern investors were exceptionally averse to risk, were not knowledgeable about the benefits of diversification, failed to alter their expectations in the light of accumulating evidence on the greater profitability of manufacturing, or attached unagreeably high social costs to industrial diversification. The argument based on social costs centers on the presumed incompatibility of industrialism and slavery. Although many of those fears seem exaggerated, their impact may have been sufficiently real to have discouraged some planters from investing in manufacturing enterprises. This explanation has a long tradition in the historical literature, best summarized as the planters' desire to preserve their hegemony and their way of life. Consequently, antebellum southern literature contained a continuing debate between industrialists who urged greater diversification because it was profitable, and slaveholders who warned of the dangers from increased industrialization. The planters could not be certain of these dangers, but "a miscalculation of the effects of raising a class of urban factory slaves or white proletarians could prove fatal to the Southern social system" (Genovese, 1965, p. 221). Their fears were fueled periodically by actual or threatened slave rebellions, and occasionally by white worker militancy or unionism. In Genovese's view it was "only a short step from specific complaints about {labor} practices to more general demands for social and political reform" (1965, p. 233). But that final step was never taken. How much more manufacturing the system could have accommodated before such disaster materialized remains unknown. Those additional affronts to the planters' world never occurred, but not because such assaults were illegal. Although the planter-dominated legislatures did not consistently foster manufacturing, except in rare instances, neither did they prohibit it. Legal barriers were not erected, in part because the planters desired some industry, but mainly because such legislation was unnecessary.

Chicago Citations

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Bateman, Fred, and Thomas Weiss. *A Deplorable Scarcity: The Failure of Industrialization in the Slave Economy*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1981.

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Bateman, *A Deplorable Scarcity*, 160–161.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.17

Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South

Keri Leigh Merritt

WORK	Masterless Men: Poor Whites and Slavery in the Antebellum South
SELECTION	Introduction: The Second Degree of Slavery
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 5–6 · Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Excerpt

Indeed, poor white Southerners not only possessed class consciousness, but as the antebellum period wore on, they became overtly resentful of slaveholders. With their labor rendered almost unnecessary, some poor whites chose to drop out of society altogether, living off the land and often running afoul of the law. Others struggled to make ends meet with occasional odd jobs and seasonal agricultural work. Yet the nature of this type of labor kept many poor white men on the move in search of jobs, fracturing households and leaving many families headed by women, at least for portions of the year. Although they never experienced the brutality and abuse that African Americans did, poor whites still suffered obvious hardships – all because of slavery.

Unfortunately, poor whites made particularly inviting targets for a southern legal system dominated by slaveholders, who generally incarcerated them for behavioral, nonviolent "crimes" such as trading, drinking, and other social interactions with slaves and free blacks. On the eve of secession, slaveholders were still jailing poor whites for small amounts of debt, publicly whipping thieves, and auctioning off debtors and criminals (for their labor) to the highest bidder. In addition to the region's sophisticated legal system, the Old South also had an extremely effective extralegal system to keep the lower-class whites in their places. From vigilance committees to minutemen groups, these organizations helped maintain both slavery and the southern social hierarchy, and ultimately forced a divided region to wage an unwanted war.

Class tensions between white Southerners in the Deep South, therefore, ultimately added to the causes of the Civil War. Angered by their lack of job prospects, poor white laborers – whose ranks were rapidly increasing in southern cities due to immigration – were becoming more and more militant in the decades leading up to secession. They began forming "associations," or labor unions, and demanded freedom from competition with slaves and even free blacks, whose wages always undercut their own. Vocal leaders of these groups threatened to stop supporting slavery if something was not done to help raise their wages. The master class was already strenuously defending the peculiar institution from attacks by northern abolitionists and by slaves themselves. When poor whites created a three-front battleground, slaveholders had few viable alternatives other than secession to protect their main source of wealth and revenue.

Attempting to frighten poor whites into supporting disunion, slaveholders predicted an impending race war following emancipation. Warning that freeing the slaves would drive down the wages of poor whites to "starvation levels," slave owners then prophesied that black men would marry the daughters of the white poor. Without slavery, masters cautioned, poor whites would become impoverished peons, the social equals of blacks. Still, despite slaveholders' racist rhetoric, many poor whites objected to the Confederate cause, but slave owners used threats of imprisonment, vigilante violence, and even death to impress the poor into service. During the Civil War, the extremely high rate of layouts and desertions among lower-class whites eventually helped lead to the Confederacy's demise.

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Shortened citation:

Merritt, *Masterless Men*, 5–6.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.18

Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development

Sven Beckert and Seth Rockman, eds.

WORK	Slavery's Capitalism: A New History of American Economic Development
SELECTION	Chapter 14, Why Did Northerners Oppose the Expansion of Slavery?
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 278–279 · University of Pennsylvania Press, 2016.

Excerpt

What makes the Republican position especially problematic is that slavery seemed to benefi t the northern economy. Slavery, historians now argue, stood at the center of the world's cap i tal ist economy. As many of the chapters in this volume make clear, northern industry, northern fi nance, and northern commerce benefi ted from slave labor. Southern slaveholders celebrated their central importance to the world economy, and they confi dently believed that northerners would never endanger access to cotton and the lucrative southern markets. Why would Yankees, they asked, make war against slavery and kill the goose that laid the golden eggs? Historians are left with the same paradox that southerners could not explain: the northern economy benefi ted from the profi ts of slave labor, yet the majority of northerners willingly risked civil war to halt slavery's westward expansion. Capitalism, it seems, went to war against itself.

To explain this paradox, I focus on core strengths of the northern po litical economy that the recent lit er a ture has tended to neglect: the democratization of education and innovation. Northerners created the world's most successful educational system, one that provided widespread access to inexpensive common schools. In the 1849–1850 school year, 63 percent of children in the rural North between the ages of fi ve and nineteen years attended school for at least part of the year, a percentage far higher than in the South and in most Eu ro pean nations.[5] Th e relatively high levels of learning, combined with the expansion of markets through transportation and communication improvements, facilitated the development of networks of inventors and innovators. Patents are one way of mea sur ing the pro gress of northern innovation. Antebellum Americans patented tens of thousands of inventions before the Civil War, and per capita rates were well ahead of those of Great Britain, the nineteenth century's great industrial power. Northerners accounted for nearly 95 percent of the national total; the South, with nearly 33 percent of the nation's population, produced only 5.[1] percent of the nation's patents.[6] Many Republicans believed that slavery, what ever its immediate economic benefi ts in providing cheap commodities for northern industry, was fundamentally hostile to the creative core of the northern economy. Antislavery activists in Louisville, Kentucky, summarized the critique in 1849: "Slavery and education are by their very nature at war with each other."[7]

Th is chapter analyzes one of the most eco nom ically successful regions of the South, a region I call the Limestone South, to show in greater detail the incompatibility of slavery and a northern economy focused on education and innovation. Th e Limestone South consisted of three distinct regions that shared rich limestone soils: Virginia's Shenandoah Valley, Kentucky's Bluegrass Region, and Tennessee's Nashville Basin. Taken as a whole, the Limestone South contained just over 22,000 square miles (approximately the size of current- day West Virginia) and just over one million residents, including 275,000 slaves. In many re spects, the Limestone South confi rms the current lit er a ture's emphasis on the fl exible, modern nature of antebellum slavery. Th e region's fertile soils and moderate climate supported dense, prosperous agricultural populations with their accompanying commerce, industry, and cities. Nearly 16 percent of the population of the Limestone South lived in a censusdefi ned urban area, which put it signifi cantly ahead of midwestern states such as Indiana and Illinois. Manufacturing output in the Limestone South was also comparable to that of midwestern states. In contrast to the predictions of free- labor ideology, the history of the Limestone South suggests that slavery, in the right environmental conditions, could indeed support a thriving, diversifi ed economy.

Author's Notes

1. John Ashworth, Slavery, Capitalism, and Politics in the Antebellum Republic, vol. 1, Commerce and Compromise, 1820–1850 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1995), 80.

5. Sun Go and Peter Lindert, "Th e Uneven Rise of American Public Schools in 1850," Journal of American History 70 (March 2010): 4. See also Claudia Goldin and Lawrence F. Katz, Th e Race Between Education and Technology (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2008), 129–62; and see Michelle Connolly, " Human Capital and Growth in the Postbellum South: A Separate But Unequal Story," Journal of Economic History 64 (June 2004): 363–99.

6. Zorina B. Khan, Th e Demo cratization of Invention: Patents and Copyrights in American Economic Development, 1790–1920 (New York: Cambridge University Press, 2005), 189. Khan argues that "Th e South, the least demo cratic region in the United States, might paradoxically provide the strongest evidence for the favorable eff ects of individual liberty and opportunity for incentives for contributions at the technological frontier in the nineteenth century" (125).

7. Address to the Non- Slaveholders of Kentucky (Louisville, Ky., 1849), 6.

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Shortened citation:

Beckert, *Slavery's Capitalism*, 278–279.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.19

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

WORK	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom
SELECTION	The Ignominious Effort to Reopen the Slave Trade
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 404–405 · Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

High boomtime prices in the Mississippi Valley vastly outstripped the returns that Virginia and other Upper-South slaveholders could expect to get from agriculture during most of the antebellum period, and tens of thousands of slaves a year were being sold through the internal trade every year. "The South," that is to say, was increasingly seen as being composed of two interlocked economies: a Deep-South economy that imported slaves and produced a staple crop, and an Upper-South economy that produced and exported slaves—the two being joined together by the internal trade. As with any market-structured transaction, there was a double-faced character to the political economy of the slave trade. On the one hand, it knit the divergent economies of the Upper and Lower South into a system of mutual dependence; on the other, it counterpoised them as adversaries in a competition over the price of slaves. The very trade that made it possible to speak of "a political economy of slavery" that stretched from Maryland and Virginia to Mississippi and Louisiana had, concealed within it, a mechanism of economic differentiation that pitted the interests of the sections against one another, once the question of the African trade had been raised. "For several years the State Revenue of the country has been paid by the sale of her slaves," wrote one central Virginia editor. "Open the Slave Trade and what will our Negroes be worth?"[19] Thus it was that Henry Pryor—asserting a vision of interregional solidarity based on a shared mode of production, and uncomplicated by the complexities of the differential effects of the thriving slave market at the center of the South—labeled the reopening of the slave trade "divisive" to the interests of the region.[20]

From the perspective of slaveholders in the Deep South, the question of comparative disadvantage in the slave market posed a still more troubling problem: the fear that their own seemingly insatiable dependence on Upper-South slaves to sate the endless cycle of consumption and production—a cycle represented by the commonplace that their only goal in life was to "buy Negroes to raise cotton and raise cotton to buy Negroes"—was attenuating the hold of slavery in the Upper South. In a way, the role played by the slave trade in Southern pro-slavery political economy came full circle in the era of the "Negro Fever." The Jeffersonian idea that the internal trade would spread The Ignominious Effort to Reopen the Slave Trade 405 lllllllllllllllllllllll slaves so widely across the landscape as to make their emancipation possible (as ludicrous as it had seemed in the 1820s and 1830s, when the slave trade was producing fear of rebellion in the Lower South) reemerged in the work of pro-slavery writers as the major challenge facing the political economy of slavery: the fear that the Upper South was being drained of slaves. The aggregate demand of Mississippi Valley cotton planters, according to the reckoning of Virginian Edmund Ruffin, was vastly greater than the rate of natural increase of Virginia slaves. Any expansionary vision—any visionary expansion—of the domain of slavery toward the west (Texas, Arkansas, Kansas) or south (Mexico, Guatemala, Nicaragua) might have the paradoxical result of allowing a corresponding advance of free labor into the South.[21]

Author's Notes

19. Lexington Valley Star, September 13, 1860, quoted in Takaki, A Pro-slavery Crusade, 119.

20. "Late Southern Convention at Montgomery," 589.

21. Edmund Ruffin, "The Effects of the High Prices of Slaves," DeBow's Review 26:6 (June 1858), 650. See also "Editorial Miscellany," DeBow's Review 26:4 (April 1859), 482; "African Labor Supply Association," DeBow's Review 27:2 (August 1859), 232, 234.

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Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 404–405.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.20

The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914

George M. Fredrickson

WORK	The Black Image in the White Mind: The Debate on Afro-American Character and Destiny, 1817-1914
SELECTION	2. Slavery and Race: The Southern Dilemma
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 61–62 · Wesleyan University Press, 1987.

Excerpt

If Fitzhugh envisioned a seigneurial society based on the image of a patriarchal plantation, the militant racists implicitly or explicitly projected a democratic and egalitarian society for whites, denying that the blacks were, in any real sense at all, part of the human community. They were advocates of what the sociologist Pierre L. van den Berghe has called "Herrenvolk democracy." In his comparative study of racism, van den Berghe has contrasted "Herrenvolk democracies"—"regimes like those of the United States or South Africa that are democratic for the master race but tyrannical for the subordinate groups"—with genuinely aristocratic multiracial societies like those of colonial Latin America.^s The conflict between a developing Herrenvolk ideology and an aristocratic or seigneurial philosophy theoretically incompatible with democracy served to divide the mind of the Old South. To understand this conflict, one must recognize that Southerners could mean two different things when they questioned the applicability of the Declaration of Independence. They could reject the idea of equality in general, like Chancellor Harper and Fitzhugh, or they could reject simply the interpretation of it which included the Negro as a man created equal to the whites. Those who embraced the second option saw themselves as preserving the egalitarian philosophy as a white racial prerogative. This latter view was stated succinctly by the Alabama fireeater William L. Yancey before a Northern audience in 1860: "Your fathers and my fathers built this government on two ideas: the first is that the white race is the citizen, and the master race, and the white man is the equal of every other white man. The second idea is that the Negro is the inferior race."^“ In the same year, a writer in the Southern Literary Messenger made a similar point in an historical analysis of slavery. Unlike the paternalists, he condemned ancient slavery and medieval serfdom in principle, because under such systems "races richly endowed by nature, and designed for high and lofty purposes, were kept from rising to their natural level." But all forms of white servitude and subordination had fallen before "the progress of truth, justice, and Christianity." Negro slavery, on the other hand, had persisted because it was not really incompatible with the growth of liberty and equality.'^

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Fredrickson, *The Black Image in the White Mind*, 61–62.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.21

Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands

J. William Harris

WORK	Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands
SELECTION	The Captives Set Free
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 189–190 · Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

The social order of the Old South (for among other effects, the Civil War turned the pre-1865 South into the Old South) was an anomaly in the mid-nineteenth century. The white South was fully committed to republican liberty for white men, and to degrading slavery for black people. Southern whites shared with other Americans their commitment to liberty. Liberty meant that men must be free to elect their own leaders and to control their own communities. It also meant that men must themselves be independent, not under the power of any other man. Liberty, therefore, required a measure of equality among citizens. These two aspects of liberty were always to some extent in tension. Autonomous men had to be virtuous; they had to be willing to subordinate the pursuit of purely private gain in order to cooperate for the good of the community as a whole. If they did not, a republic would inevitably deteriorate into an anarchic pursuit of private interest. In particular, if the gap between the rich and the poor were too great, the poor would always be tempted to use their votes to control the state and seize the property of the rich. The resulting anarchy, as the lamentable history of republics had shown, would end only when a military despotism had restored order.

The tensions between public and private good, and between liberty and equality, were sharply exacerbated by slavery. In the first place, slavery seemed to mock the very idea of liberty. Slavery also divided whites into owners and nonowners of slaves, thus undermining the equality so necessary among republican citizens. At least some poor men in the Old South regarded slavery as the cause of their poverty; they formed a potential base of political opposition to slavery.

Southerners attempted to reconcile liberty and slavery by appealing to one important conservative strain of republican ideology. Slavery, they claimed, actually enhanced the sense of equality among white men, and confined to the most debased categories of society—menial labor—an inferior race. Every white man was at least one giant step above all slaves in status, and thus, relative to slaves, true republican equality existed in the ruling group of citizens. Meanwhile slaves, whose aspirations as well as whose capabilities were seen as inferior, were content in their subordination. Wanting neither equality nor liberty, they never would become the cause of social tumults.

The confidence with which many southern spokesmen made such arguments belied their anxieties about their truth. Slave masters knew that all slaves were not content in their slavery. Masters therefore depended on nonslaveowning whites to bolster their control over slaves. The gentry did have to accept the plain folk as equals, at least in most public situations, and especially at election time. Planters also helped out poor neighbors economically when times were hard. Such actions helped to reduce the perceived distance between white classes. But the rise of the powerful antislavery Republican party in the North threatened the South's delicate balance of white liberty and black slavery. Republicans might appeal to black slaves to strike directly for freedom, and Republicans certainly would try to build up among the plain folk an antislavery party within the South. To many slave masters, the party of Abraham Lincoln thus appeared to be a mortal threat to their entire society. They pulled the South into secession and war to preserve both the liberty and the slavery in that society.

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Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society*, 189–190.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.22

Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South

Lacy K. Ford

WORK	Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 8–9 · Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

Th e triumph of a systematic ideology of white supremacy lent momentum to the embrace of paternalism on the basis of the racial inferiority of the enslaved. But the ideology of white supremacy could justify racial separation or racial exclusion as well as racial slavery, and it could be (and was) used to justify the whitening of the upper South as well as the adoption of paternalism in the lower South. In Tennessee and North Carolina, upper South states where racial lines had not already been fi rmly drawn in the public sphere, the rise of this ideology generated a fresh determination to reconfi gure the boundaries of political and civic life in ways that systematically excluded all blacks, including propertied free blacks, from political rights. In □□□□ and □□□□, state constitutional conventions in Tennessee and North Carolina, respectively, fully disfranchised free blacks. Th e fl ip side of this movement to eliminate blacks from civic and political life was the increasing tendency of white southerners to see their skin color as a source of entitlement to all the rights and privileges of citizenship.

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Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil*, 8–9.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.23

Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi

Charles C. Bolton

WORK	Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi
SELECTION	Poor Whites in the Cotton South: Northeast Mississippi
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 105–106 · Duke University Press, 1994.

Excerpt

Gilliam, Mays, and Kenedy as supplemental labor to his large slave force. As in North Carolina, a forerunner of the crop lien system existed in antebellum Mississippi. The ability of men such as Leak to provide credit services to their tenants and laborers provided the mechanism through which landless whites were recruited to the task of providing additional labor for wealthy cotton producers while reaping few of the benefits generated by the production of the valuable staple. In the process, many poor whites in northeast Mississippi, like those in the central Piedmont of North Carolina, became locked into a cycle of dependency. Generally the only way to break out of such debilitating credit relationships was to move farther west. Many did.

When poor white laborers or tenants became part of the larger work forces of wealthy white slaveholders in northeast Mississippi, the line between black slavery and white freedom blurred. Poor whites and black slaves who picked cotton alongside each other for the benefit of wealthy slaveowners met on a similar ground of dependence and poverty. At these moments, the unspoken power relations of the slave system could become apparent for both poor whites and blacks. Blacks realized that the power of their masters to compel labor could extend to whites as well. Consequently, the argument that slavery was based on black "inferiority" lost some of its power, as did racial arguments that blacks were only fit for labor while whites had been created for "higher" purposes. At the same time, poor whites could see vividly that the enslavement of blacks did not necessarily insure independence for all white citizens.

The potential danger to slavery that a dependent poor white population posed, however, remained more remote in northeast Mississippi than in the central Piedmont of North Carolina. For one thing, the slave owners of northeast Mississippi did not have to contend with the equally troubling status problem posed by a considerable free black population. In 1860, only 773 of Mississippi's 437,404 black residents were free, and most of these free blacks resided in either Natchez, Vicksburg, or Jackson. A mere 37 free blacks lived in the four counties of northeast Mississippi in 1860.

By the I 840S Mississippi law prOvided that free blacks could remain in the state only if they were given speCific permission by the legislature.

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Bolton, *Poor Whites of the Antebellum South*, 105–106.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.24

Plain Folk of the Old South

Frank Lawrence Owsley

WORK	Plain Folk of the Old South
SELECTION	Plain Folk Of The Old South
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 134–135 · Louisiana State University Press, 1949.

Excerpt

This sense of unity between all social and economic groups can not be stressed too much, in view of the strongly and widely held opinion to the contrary. Indeed, when the placed in perspective, rather than viewing each segment economic structure of the Old South. A grazing and farm economy rather than a plantation economy was practiced of the slaveholders. Farm economy meant a diversified, self-sufficient type of agriculture, where the money crops were subordinated to food crops, and where the labor was performed by the family or the family aided by a few slaves. Plantation economy depended upon slave labor, and usually specialized in the production of one or more of the the planters; in fact, they frequently produced enough corn for their own use, but such crops were generally subsufficiency of farm economy, the farmers were seldom involved in indebtedness, once they had paid for their lands.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Owsley, Frank Lawrence. *Plain Folk of the Old South*. Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1949.

Footnote citation:

Frank Lawrence Owsley, *Plain Folk of the Old South* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1949), 134–135.

Shortened citation:

Owsley, *Plain Folk of the Old South*, 134–135.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.25

Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands

J. William Harris

WORK	Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 6–7 · Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

Yet I also found that this unity was precarious, not least because whites in the Augusta area had a remarkably ambivalent view of themselves and their society. The dominant public ideology held up the South as almost an ideal type of society, in which black slavery allowed liberty for whites without the dangers of anarchy. This ideal, which white Southerners called republican, had as one important facet a strong commitment to an agrarian economy in which most white men were independent producers, and in which most menial labor was performed by a degraded and dependent race that was excluded from the political community. Racially based slavery, therefore, guaranteed white liberty. This ideal was shared by owners and nonowners of slaves, and liberty was as important as slavery in the hearts and minds of even large planters.

This republican vision, however, was far more pessimistic than is modern democratic liberalism. Republicans thought that men were always liable to corruption and decadence and that liberty was always threatened by the loss of equipoise. It might be overturned, on the one hand, by excessive concentrations of political power, especially national political power; or, on the other, by excessive democracy, which in the long run must lead first to anarchy, then tyranny. Slavery, even while it supposedly guaranteed republican liberty for white men, simultaneously created grave threats to that liberty. As a public badge differentiating slaveowners from nonslaveowners, it reminded whites that political equality did not translate into economic equality. Rumblings of poor-white discontent frightened planters, especially because they depended on nonslaveowners to keep slaves under control. Planters could never be sure that the bridges between the rich and the poor in the South would be strong enough to withstand the assaults of an increasingly powerful threat from northern abolitionists and free-soilers.

Secession was an attempt by planters to protect what they saw as their liberties, including the liberty to own slaves, from future internal and external threats. The resulting war produced, in one of the many ironies of southern history, exactly what they had most feared. Before the Civil War, southern slaveowners had contained white class divisions sufficiently well to ensure continued control over black people unwilling to accept slavery on any terms but force. But the basis of that containment—an ideology of liberty, a potential for social mobility, and a web of personal relationships between classes—could not withstand the strains of war.

Slave resistance increased dramatically; the support of nonslaveholders, at first enthusiastic, withered away and even turned at times to outright opposition,- the republican fear of power was turned—in the supreme irony—on the Confederate government itself. Many slaveowners felt faced with a choice they had always considered a logical impossibility: either liberty or slavery. By the end of the war, the bonds of community had so far dissolved that Confederate victory was impossible. Ultimately, the South's conquerors would seek to extend their own version of republican liberty to freed slaves, and the attempt, however unsuccessful, would change southern society forever.

Chicago Citations

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Harris, J. William. *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands*. Middletown, CT: Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

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Shortened citation:

Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society*, 6–7.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.26

The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders

James Oakes

WORK	The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders
SELECTION	Master-class Pluralism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 39–40 · Alfred A. Knopf (pb. W. W. Norton), 1982.

Excerpt

County, North Carolina, the percentage of white families owning slaves increased from 14.[9] in 1790 to 27.[7] in 1860, with no significant concentration of wealth among planters.[5] But the economic structure of antebellum southern society was considerably more complex than the statistics on concentration and maldistribution of wealth reveal. The proportion of slaveholders among southern whites was shrinking even as the absolute number of masters grew by seventy percent in a single generation, to nearly 400,000 in 1860. This expansion suggests widespread opportunity for upward mobility, and among slaveholders the evidence for social fluidity is convincing. There are strong correlations between youth and poverty, and between old age and large slaveholdings, suggesting that as individuals matured there was a good chance for economic advancement.° Slavery created wealthy whites, not poor whites. Indeed, the unequal distribution of wealth in the South may have had little to do with slavery. Throughout America, equally large proportions of whites were impoverished—as many as two out of five. And, as in the North, southern poverty was as much a phenomenon of cities and immigrants as of rural destitution. What slaveholding did to the economic pyramid of white society was to expand its highest stratum. In 1860, the twelve wealthiest counties in the United States were below the Mason and Dixon line. Adams County, Mississippi, had the highest per capita wealth of any county in the nation.' The median slaveholding rarely strayed far from four to six bondsmen per master. In 1850 half the slaveholders owned five bondsmen or fewer. Small holdings were not only the rule among the foreign-born but among the native-born white, Indian, and black slaveholders as well. In cities, on farms, in the old slave states of Virginia and North Carolina and in the frontier states of Missouri and Texas, the typical slaveholder did not own more than ten slaves. Three out of four masters owned fewer than ten in 1850. Even in the extraordinarily wealthy rice-producing counties of the South Carolina lowcountry, nearly half of the masters owned ten slaves or fewer.® Statistically, at least, the typical slaveholder was not even a planter, much less an aristocrat. If the slaveholders were an aristocracy, they may well have been the most broadly based aristocracy in Western history. For the first half of the nineteenth century, about a third of all southern white families held slaves, and the fraction never went below a fourth before the Civil War. But even this statistic misrepresents the actual extent of slaveholding. In some of the most heavily populated slave states—South Carolina, Mississippi, Alabama, Georgia—between thirty-five and fifty percent of the white families held slaves in 1860. It would be difficult to argue that forty-eight percent of Mississippi's white families were aristocratic simply because they held slaves.' Yet these numbers still underestimate the extent to which southern whites had a direct material interest in the perpetuation of black slavery. It is clear that the majority of slaveholders who owned no more than five bondsmen were not a stable economic class. At that level it was quite common for owners to hold slaves only erratically, depending upon their seasonal needs or their immediate economic circumstances. Indeed, movement into and out of the slaveholding class may have been the rule rather than the exception for the majority of masters. The statistics for the number of whites who held slaves at the moment the figures were compiled do not account for the thousands who held slaves intermittently. In addition, there were large numbers of farmers, professionals, tradesmen, and even government bureaucrats who hired slaves on a seasonal or yearly basis. It could be argued that whites who hired slaves were reinforcing planter domination by their dependence on large slaveholders.!° But as often as not, it was the planters who depended 'on non-slaveholding employers to train their bondsmen in a skill or to relieve masters of the burden of caring for more slaves than they could employ usefully. Like those who temporarily held no slaves, those who hired bondsmen did not show up in the statistics for slaveholding. There was also a smaller but nonetheless significant group of young white Southerners who, by virtue of their education or family background, had every reason to expect that within a few years they would own slaves. One reason poverty corresponded strongly with youth in the Old South was that young professionals who had moved out to the frontier to begin their careers showed up on the tax returns and census records as propertyless.

Author's Notes

5. Gavin Wright, The Political Economy of the Cotton South (New York, 1978), 29-33; Warren I. Smith, “Land Patterns in Ante-bellum Montgomery County, Walker, Samuel, 201-2, 203-4, 206, 216-17 Washington, D.C., 50 Washington, George, 120, 146 Watkins, J. L., 172 Watson, Henry, Jr., 72, 79, 86, I11, 121, 125, 139, 199-201, 202-3, 208-9, 219, 222, 223 wealth, inequality of, 9, 37-9, 67 West, William, 108 West Point, 70, 198 westward migration, 77-95, 129-30; effect of, on living conditions, 82-7; and expansionism, 147-9; pressure to move, 73—6; reaction against, 87-90, 204-5 Whig Party, 146-7, 199, 200, 206, 207, 220 whipping, 159-60, 163, 167 Index 307 Whitefield, George, 97 Wilcox, Edmund, 26 Wilkes, John, 15 Willson, Eliza Ann, 236 Winchester, James, 74 Winston, John A., 149, 231-2 winter, 199, 222 Withers, William, 203 Witherspoon, David, 204 Witherspoon, Rev. John, 110, 119 women: paternalistic attitude toward, 214; as slaveholders, 50; and westward migration, criticism of, 87-8 Woodson, Charles, 161 Woodward, C. Vann, xiv—xv Yancey, William Lowndes, 235, 239-40

7. Soltow, Men and Wealth, 25, 66, 101, 166-167. It is this southern domination of American wealthholders that explains the higher statistical inequality of the South more than the presence of a larger number of poor whites.

9. Soltow, Men and Wealth, 57; Otto H. Olsen, “Historians and the Extent of Slave Ownership in the Southern United States,” Civil War History, 18 (1972), III.

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Shortened citation:

Oakes, *The Ruling Race*, 39–40.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.27

Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South

Bertram Wyatt-Brown

WORK	Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South
SELECTION	Honor, Shame, and Justice in a Slavocracy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 371–372 · Oxford University Press, 1982.

Excerpt

Policing one's own ethical sphere was the natural complement of the patriarchal order. When Southerners spoke of liberty, they generally meant the birthright to self-determination of one's place in society, not the freedom to defy sacred conventions, challenge longheld assumptions, or propose another scheme of moral or political order. If someone, especially a slave, spoke or acted in a way that invaded that territory or challenged that right, the white man so confronted had the inalienable right to meet the lie and punish the opponent. Without such a concept of white liberty, slavery would have scarcely lasted a moment. There was little paradox or irony in this juxtaposition from the cultural perspective. Power, liberty, and honor were all based upon community sanction, law, and traditional hierarchy as described in the opening section.

The purpose of unchecked freedom to be one's own final authority went quite beyond the needs of the slaveholding system. It was a matter of personal reputation to prove oneself a master of events to one's family and household, as well as to the world at large. For instance, when Robert E. Lee of Arlington, Virginia, discovered that two young slaves had run away to Pennsylvania, he had them sought after and returned. An anonymous critic informed the Northern public, through the New York Tribune, that Lee had personally supervised their flogging. Lee was responsible for some sixtythree slaves, not all of whom could be usefully employed at the Arlington plantation. He sent some to eastern Virginia, particularly the rebellious ones, who would have less opportunity there to flee northward. Perhaps, as Douglas Southall Freeman claims, that was the extent of his reaction to the runaways' offense. Wesley Norris, one of the pair, gave a grim account of the whipping, however. He said that Lee had watched the proceedings with eyes black with fury and had ordered brine poured into the wounds. Whether this and like reports are to be believed, it must be remembered that even the gentlest masters—and Lee was reputedly one of them—found occasion when there seemed to them very little choice about the use of coercion. It would not do for any slave to take flagrant advantage of a master's delicacy of conscience. To push too hard against the institution or against an owner's sense of self-esteem was to threaten the social order as it was then understood. Failure to react appropriately could be misinterpreted, not only by the compliant slaves but by the white community, too. The moral problem was itself built into the Southern ethic. One simply could not be made to look inept, powerless, or squeamish. For these reasons, in a case about which there can be no doubts, the Rev.

Chicago Citations

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Footnote citation:

Bertram Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor: Ethics and Behavior in the Old South* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1982), 371–372.

Shortened citation:

Wyatt-Brown, *Southern Honor*, 371–372.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.28

Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country

Stephanie McCurry

WORK	Masters of Small Worlds: Yeoman Households, Gender Relations, and the Political Culture of the Antebellum South Carolina Low Country
SELECTION	2. Producing Independence
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 71–72 · Oxford University Press, 1995.

Excerpt

The only meaningful measure of success was, of course, holding onto the farm. That became increasingly difficult in the 1850s as the Low Country, like the rest of the South, underwent a marked concentration of wealth in land and slaves. The effects on the yeomanry in St. Peter's Parish were twofold. Significant numbers of yeoman families left the parish during the decade, with the poorest most likely to leave. But of those who stayed the great majority managed to hold onto their land, and some, like Abner Ginn, even managed to get ahead.

Persistence rates in the parish were comparable to the rest of the plantation South, with three of ten individuals and almost eight of ten families remaining from 1850 to 1860. Wealth had everything to do with who stayed and who moved on. Almost half of the richest planters were still in the parish ten years later, but fewer than a quarter of landless men remained. Yeomen occupied a middle ground. Between one-quarter and one-half of them remained in the parish throughout the decade, and the likelihood of their doing so increased as their property holdings increased. Among those yeomen who did remain and whose households can be traced over the decade, the poorest (those with fewer than twenty-five acres) struggled and often failed (more than half lost title to their land), but fully eight out of ten held onto their land, and about half even added to their holdings. For yeomen in this lowcountry parish, mobility into the ranks of the planter class was about as common as snow in September. Only one man, and he was probably a planter's son, made such a move during the 1850s. Yeomen had to settle for more modest gains. Two out of every ten increased their holdings in slaves, and a handful, like Ginn's neighbor William Airs, who started the decade with seven or eight slaves, acquired the few more that moved them into the ranks of small planters.[62] For the most part, however, the success they achieved was the one for which they planned: to hold onto the farm, to increase its size and value, and, in the best possible world, to establish the next generation of yeoman farmers. With reasonable prospects of success, self-working farmers went about the work of producing independence.

"Self-working farmer." That was the face lowcountry yeomen turned to the world beyond the fence. But it was only one profile of yeoman household economy, inseparable from the other, domestic, one. Infinitely harder to see, the domestic face turned into the household where the daily work of independence was conducted. Abner Ginn and his neighbors were not really "self-working farmers." On the contrary, the very term expressed their successful appropriation of the labor of others: the women, children, and, sometimes, slaves who peopled their households and tilled their fields. The vitality of male independence that characterized the public sphere of marketplace and ballot box was tied intimately to the legal and customary dependencies of the household.[63]

In yeoman households, familial and productive relations were virtually indistinguishable, and both were defined by a series of dependencies that subordinated all members to the male head. Any number of factors /shaped the particular configuration of labor, including, as we have seen, the total number of household members, their sex and age, the stage in the family lifecycle, and the presence of slaves, whether hired or owned, and their sex and age. But in

yeoman households the work done by wives, sons, and daughters was, by definition, crucial to the calculus of production. Even the ownership of slaves did not change the predominantly familial character of household economy. Thus, while relations between masters and slaves were part of the social dynamics of a substantial minority of yeoman households, the relations of domination and subordination characteristic of every household were, in fact, those between the sexes. Gender was thus a primary axis of power in yeoman households. It undergirded the material production of independence and framed its political meanings as well.

Author's Notes

62. See Appendix, Table IV. For persistence and social mobility rates in other parts of the South, see Linden, "Economic Democracy in the Slave South," pp. 174—84, and Hahn, Roots of Southern Populism, pp. 16, 47. For the Low Country in the early antebellum period, see Mark D. Kaplanoff, "Making the South Solid: Politics and the Structure of Society in South Carolina, 1790-1815" (Ph.D. Diss., University of Cambridge, 1979), pp. 22, 43. The lowcountry planter elite had the highest persistence rate in North America in the nineteenth century.

63. For one study that explores the relationship between domestic hierarchies and public, political ones, see Allen Tullos, Habits of Industry: White Culture and the Transformation of the Carolina Piedmont (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1989).

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Shortened citation:

McCurry, *Masters of Small Worlds*, 71–72.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.29

Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi

Charles C. Bolton

WORK	Poor Whites of the Antebellum South: Tenants and Laborers in Central North Carolina and Northeast Mississippi
SELECTION	Epilogue: Poor Whites and the New South
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 183–184 · Duke University Press, 1994.

Excerpt

For most of the antebellum period, any rumblings of discontent from the South's white nonslaveholders were eaSily channeled into the twoparty competition for power between the Whigs and Democrats. Elites controlled both parties, the selection of candidates, and the type of issues open for political debate. Despite such an arrangement, most eligible citizens actively participated in antebellum elections, largely because the two parties offered the voters some alternatives-albeit limited ones-on a variety of important issues. Overall, the antebellum party system avoided a polarization of voters along class lines and preserved elite political power.

As southern slaveholders contemplated secession in the days and months after Lincoln's election, it became clear that a significant number of nonslaveholders would not support the measure. While traditional, elite political leaders initially emerged to lead the antisecession opposition in the South, this leadership generally proved both ineffective and fleeting when matched against the highly motivated secessionists of the region. Burdened with inadequate leadership, the persistent foes of secessionhailing largely from the lower ranks of the region's social structure-were an easy target for the intimidation tactics used by disunion proponents. Although the harassment of poor white voters had occurred during other antebellum elections, the stifling of dissident opinions by secessionists during the disunion crisis represented a degree of undemocratic political maneuvering previously unknown in the region during the antebellum years.

It is unlikely that opponents of secession in Mississippi and North Carolina had the numbers to forestall secession at the time of their states' respective secession convention elections; however, the intimidation practiced by firebrands during the crisis certainly suggests that they thought a popular defeat of their cause remained a possibility. The chance of defeat in fair elections was simply too great to be risked. In numerous postbellum elections where popular opposition threatened Democratic dominance, Democratic leaders would make a similar determination that intimidation and fraud offered a powerful, and often decisive, weapon in the fight against lower-class dissidents.

Fears of a biracial alliance of the poor had also plagued antebellum leaders. In the antebellum South, poor whites and blacks often worked side by side for the benefit of others; they engaged in an underground network of exchange to secure resources unattainable through traditional channels; they gathered SOcially to drink, to gamble, and even on occasion to make love. Poor whites sometimes joined slaves in challenging the concept of slavery itself by helping them escape bondage or participating in slave insurrections. All these activities raised concerns that poor whites might join slaves in a sustained challenge that would ultimately destroy the institution of southern slavery. For numerous reasons, however, antebellum poor whites actually posed only a minor threat as the potential allies of enslaved blacks. For one thing, numerous ties connected poor whites to their wealthier family members and neighbors. Also, the constant geographic mobility among poor whites made them unlikely candidates for any type of sustained political coalition. Most importantly, poor whites, in their dealings with blacks, were just as likely to display racial hatred and violence as they were to engage in acts of mutual understanding and cooperation.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.30

Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands

J. William Harris

WORK	Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society: White Liberty and Black Slavery in Augusta's Hinterlands
SELECTION	In The Mist Of A Revolution
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 137–138 · Wesleyan University Press, 1985.

Excerpt

It would be easy to cite evidence from the Augusta area for both these interpretations. Whites did, for good reason, fear that slaves might someday revolt; slaveowners did, for good reason, doubt the political loyalty of poor whites and yeomen. Yet both these interpretations are too simple. It was, first, the combination of slave resistance and white class conflict, together with the outside threat posed by a hostile, antislavery party in Washington, that fueled the fears of most secessionists. Any one of these threats, or even any two, would have seemed, and been, much less dangerous than all three.

Second, and most important, secessionists analyzed and interpreted their predicament with the help of a theory of politics and history that told them they ought to fear both internal conflict and outside power as threats to liberty, and that also told them what to do about their fears. Few secessionists thought Lincoln or his party would be able to harm slavery immediately. But their time frame was long, and they believed and argued that the ultimate result of that hostile power must be attack from without, division within, and, finally, the end of slavery—an end that this profoundly racist society would imagine only with horror. Too, secessionists struck for independence out of hope as well as fear. Secession, they thought, would guarantee both black slavery and white liberty. National independence promised to white southerners that sense of personal independence that was the highest of their civic values. Black slavery and white liberty, they had learned to argue, were inseparably bound together. Together they would be saved, or lost.

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Shortened citation:

Harris, *Plain Folk and Gentry in a Slave Society*, 137–138.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.31

Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made
SELECTION	Part I, Of the Willing and the Obedient
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 75–76 · Pantheon Books, 1974.

Excerpt

John S. Wise of Virginia, looking back on the fall of the Confederacy from the vantage point of the turn of the century, condemned slavery as a curse and expressed relief that it had passed. But he also observed: "There is not a graveyard in Old Virginia but has some tombstone marking the restingplace of somebody who accepted slavery as he or she found it, who bore it as a duty and a burden, and who wore himself or herself out in the conscientious effort to perform that duty well."' Those words "duty" and "burden" recurred time and again. They must be appreciated as being central to the self-image and self-respect of the master class if either the slaveholders or the slaves are to be understood. The twin themes sounded in eighteenth-century Virginia.

Besides the advantage of a pure Air, we abound in all kinds of Provisions without expence (I mean we who have Plantations). I have a large Family of my own, and my Doors are open to Every Body, yet I have no Bills to pay, and half-a-Crown will rest undisturbed in my Pocket for many Moons together.

Later in the century the tart Landon Carter denounced blacks as "devils" and concluded that emancipation would be madness since it would unleash them. Yet, his diary for 1757 shows him following an ill field hand through an assortment of miseries and cures with the utmost care and concern. His diary reveals constant attention to the needs of his slaves.'

Chicago Citations

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Shortened citation:

Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 75–76.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.32

The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	The Slaveholders' Dilemma: Freedom and Progress in Southern Conservative Thought, 1820-1860
SELECTION	The Dilemma
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 33–34 · University of South Carolina Press, 1992.

Excerpt

The Dilemma 33 an accompanying infidelity. New doctrines dared to raise man to the place reserved for God and thereby threatened moral decay and assaulted church and state, divinely ordained family and social relations, and God Himself. Caveats notwithstanding, the slaveholders did place great weight on the quantitative progress of morality and did see material progress as its handmaiden. They thus linked Protestant Christianity to economic liberalism and political republicanism, much as a host of bourgeois liberals did. But in the slaveholders' perspective, slavery or, more precisely, the several forms of personal servitude, provided the necessary foundation for a society that could sustain a Christian social order and guarantee individual freedom for those who deserved and were competent to wield it.[35] They acknowledged that the greater the extent to which the individual found himself free to pursue his own destiny, the greater his contribution to the economic progress on which the pace, although not the content, of moral progress depended. And in this spirit they joined their liberal adversaries at home and abroad in embracing the claims of freedom as developed in classical political economy as well as in the emerging arguments for freedom of thought. The southerners' warm praise of the benefits of freedom and progress have led many able historians, reviewing these and other matters, to attribute to the slaveholders a basically bourgeois worldview to which they merely tacked on an opportunistic defense of slave property and racial stratification. These historians have found irresistible the invitation to conflate the slaveholders' searing ambivalence with the kind of moral objections to the social devastation attendant upon unregulated capitalist development that were being heard in London, Paris, New York, and Boston, as well as in Charlottesville and Williamsburg, Columbia and Charleston, Huntsville and Mobile. They err, for the slaveholders, unlike conservatives in the North and abroad, explicitly identified the free-labor system i s the source of the moral evils and forged a critique that struck at its heart.3° With 34 The Slaveholders' Dilemma varying degrees of boldness, one after another came to view the freedom of labor as a brutal fiction that undermined the propertied classes' sense of responsibility for the moral and material welfare of society. Despite similarities, only some of the important features of the reigning sensibility and worldview of the Old"South may be assimilated to the broad current of conservatism that acted as a counterpoint to the increasingly dominant liberalism of the transatlantic world. In the North, in Britain, and most strikingly on the Continent, conservatives reacted forcefully against the high social costs of the industrial revolution, against radical-democratic and egalitarian social and political creeds, against secularization and the no less dangerous emergence of liberal theologies, and against the insidious pressures toward repudiation of church and family, authority and hierarchy, order and tradition. But for most, even their harshest critiques of the consequences of progress and individual freedom remained grounded in a fundamental acceptance of the reigning capitalist socioeconomic system. Some European and northern conservatives did assail capitalism itself, but they did so as isolated intellectuals who had been stripped of the social base on which the slaveholders stood. The great divergence of southern thought from northern and transatlantic bourgeois thought, including its bourgeoisconservative variant, appeared in the confrontation with the specific nature of freedom and its implications for the present and future, most significantly the condition of laborers. Even the advocates of the extreme proslavery argument — of slavery as the natural and proper condition of all labor, regardless of race — understood freedom to entail a good deal more than their own claims to freedom as a privileged and preferred status. They acknowledged individual freedom as the motor force of a providential and potentially good historical progress. They simultaneously insisted that slavery afforded the best foundation for a free society.

Author's Notes

35. Ibid., p. 199. For an illuminating analysis on the attempt to rescue Bacon from the Utilitarians see Faust, Sacred Circle, pp. 71-73.

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Shortened citation:

Genovese, *The Slaveholders' Dilemma*, 33–34.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.33

Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South

Lacy K. Ford

WORK	Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South
SELECTION	Paternalism Rising
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 514–515 · Oxford University Press, 2009.

Excerpt

With slavery for blacks justifi ed by race and slavery defended as a proper foundation for republican government through its ability to mute class confl ict among whites, the question that remained was how slavery could be squared with the safety of whites and the humanity of the slaveholders. Toward that end, the third, fi nal, and arguably most critical, aspect of the lower South's ideological recon- fi guration of slavery involved the fi nal triumph of paternalism as the dominant ideology of slaveholding in the Old South. Th e triumph of paternalism was a slow and contested one, fought for over more than a generation by a cohort of slaveholders, clergy, and other white southerners committed to paternalism as an ideology of slavery and a method of slave management against other slaveholders and white southerners who were in varying proportions indiff erent, skeptical, and even hostile toward the paternalist cause.

Chicago Citations

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Ford, Lacy K. *Deliver Us from Evil: The Slavery Question in the Old South*. New York: Oxford University Press, 2009.

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Shortened citation:

Ford, *Deliver Us from Evil*, 514–515.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.34

Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South

Michael Tadman

WORK	Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South
SELECTION	Part Two: Slave Trading and the Values of Masters and Slaves
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 218–219 · University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Excerpt

These categories are not intended to be exhaustive and represent no more than a few very general types. The evidence of the trade, however, helps to make sense of them.

Individual slaves, perhaps especially some domestics, might have been indulged by some owners from category two (and perhaps even categories three and four), but genuine paternalistic sacrifice seems to have been a rarity. Slaveholder and slaves were not intimately linked in a deepest of slave emotions do not suggest a system based on positive incentives, diligent workers, high morale, and accommodation within a joint economic enterprise. Slaveholder priorities and attitudes suggest, instead, a system based much more crudely on arbitrary power, distrust, and fear. [13] It is true there was, to some extent, interpenetration of white and slave culture—particularly in the outer form which slave religion took—but the general context of planter as speculator suggests only a severely limited interaction and sharing. [14] Essentially, speculators—meaning in this case slaveholders as well as traders—did not know and did not want to know enough of slave values for profound interactions to take place.

Author's Notes

13. Such comments run counter to the general accommodation theory of Fogel and Engerman in Time on the Cross.

14. On ideas of cultural penetration of masters into the world of slaves, and on "organic" relationships between masters and slaves, see Genovese, Roll, Jordan, Roll, pp. 73, 124-25, and Fox-Genovese and Genovese, Fruits of Merchant Capital, pp. 144-47, 138-39.

Chicago Citations

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Tadman, *Speculators and Slaves*, 218–219.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.35

American Slavery, 1619-1877

Peter Kolchin

WORK	American Slavery, 1619-1877
SELECTION	Antebellum Slavery: Organization, Control, Paternalism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 111–112 · Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

In short, although there was an extraordinary variety of slave experiences, the slave population was relatively undifferentiated in terms of economic and social status. Slaves performed numerous occupations under widely varying conditions, but except on atypically large estates those conditions did not encourage the emergence of sharp social divisions among them. The dependent status they shared, together with the limited opportunity for specialization of labor and the substantial degree of occupational mobility, meant that antebellum Southern slaves formed a population that paradoxically was marked by great uniformity even as it exhibited great diversity. Despite the multiplicity of different slave experiences, much more united the slaves than divided them.

Antebellum slave relations were marked by a dualism inherent in slavery: slaves were at the same time both objects and subjects, human property held for the purpose of enriching the masters and individuals with lives of their own. But this dualism was especially pronounced in the antebellum South because conditions there accentuated personal relations between master and slave to an extent rarely seen in other slave-owning societies. Slavery served mercenary goals in the South, as it did elsewhere, but it did far more than that; to most masters, slavery represented a civilization or way of life that ordered their very existence.

The distinctive way in which Southern slave owners looked upon and dealt with their slaves has recently been characterized by the term “paternalism.” This concept is useful, but it is important to specify what it does and does not mean, for it has generated widespread confusion. Slave-owner paternalism involved not a good, painless, or benign slavery—all contradictions in terms—but a slavery in which masters took personal interest in the lives of their slaves. The typical Southern slave owner knew his or her slaves by name and interacted with them on a frequent basis, not only directing their labor but also looking after their welfare and interfering in their lives. Masters saw their slaves not just as their laborers but also as their “people,” inferior members of their extended households from whom they expected work and obedience but to whom they owed guidance and protection. Not all masters took their paternalistic responsibilities seriously, but the small size of slaveholdings and the resident character—and mentality—of slaveholders produced unusually close contact between master and slave and fostered among many slave owners a strong paternalistic self-image. They spoke frequently of their “love” for their slaves, and although such assertions contained considerable hyperbole, they also expressed the very real conviction that there was more to slavery than profit and loss. If the seeds of this paternalism were already widely sown in the eighteenth-century Chesapeake, with the simultaneous emergence of a largely resident planter class and a predominantly creole slave population, its full blossoming occurred throughout much of the South during the half century before the Civil War.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

Kolchin, Peter. *American Slavery, 1619-1877*. Rev. ed. New York: Hill and Wang, 2003.

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Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877*, 111–112.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.36

Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South

Barbara Krauthamer

WORK	Black Slaves, Indian Masters: Slavery, Emancipation, and Citizenship in the Native American South
SELECTION	Excerpt from the supplied edition
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · University of North Carolina Press, 2013.

Excerpt

1835 confirmed that upon a man's death, his estate passed to his widow and children. Widows who remarried and squandered their children's inheritance, specifically slaves, would not be allowed to continue serving as the guardian of their children's property. In the case of orphans who inherited slaves, their guardian was required to hire out the slaves "to the highest bidder for the benefit of the orphans." Laws also addressed the issue of enslaved people's ownership of property, stating that by the end of 1836, no "negro slaves shall be in possession of any property or arms,' and any property or arms seized from slaves would be auctioned for the benefit of the Choctaw Nation. Legal distinctions between Indians and black people extended beyond slavery, as the Choctaw constitution of 1840 held that "no free negro, or any part negro" could settle in the Choctaw Nation. By contrast, other laws held that white men— by definition "free'—only needed to "procure permission in writing from the Chief or the United States Agent" to reside in the Choctaw Nation." Racial categories came into sharper relief in the constitutional provisions regarding sex and citizenship. In the early decades of the nineteenth century, Choctaw and Chickasaw lawmakers embraced a racial ideology that linked race with legal status—free or enslaved—and citizenship. While Indians from other nations might be naturalized and adopted as Choctaw citizens and white men could gain citizenship after marrying a Choctaw woman, "a negro or descendant of a negro" was not eligible for naturalization. The 1840 constitution elaborated on the subject of race and citizenship, barring anyone "who is any right to own slaves, prohibited slaves' ownership of property, and barred anyone of African descent from citizenship, suffrage, and office holding in the Chickasaw Nation." The right to own property instead of being owned as property was thus a cornerstone of Choctaw and Chickasaw conceptions of citizenship, which was defined in terms of race. The racial construction of citizenship was, furthermore, asserted as a natural distinction that should not be transgressed. Indian legislators condemned sexual relationships between Indians and black people and punished Choctaws and Chickasaws for "publicly tak[ing] up with a negro slave" with fines, whippings and, ultimately, expulsion from the nation." Proscriptions against interracial marriage or "public" relationships between Indians and black people not only naturalized the notion of racial difference but also helped define and maintain the boundaries of race and citizenship.*° Physical dominance and violence often served to mark and maintain the distance and differences between free and enslaved people. Choctaw and their households under a male head already marked a significant change from older practices of matrilineality, and vesting the male head with expansive control over the people and property in his household only underscored the shift. According to missionary Cyrus Kingsbury, Choctaws equated owning slaves with owning other types of property, and he expected that younger generations would learn that one day they, too, "may lawfully buy them & mark [slaves]. Many slaves' bodies bore the marks of whippings and physical abuse inflicted by Indian slaveholders and the white men they employed as overseers. In 1822 Choctaw slaveholder Anthony Tyrnbull "hired a white man to drive his negroes." In 1824 the U.S. Indian agent posted in the Chickasaw Nation noted that white men were hired as overseers not only on large plantations but also on smaller farms, where they monitored and punished enslaved workers. Choctaw and Chickasaw planters did not rely exclusively on white overseers to direct and correct their slaves. When Peter Pitchlynn traveled away from his plantation, for example, he relied on his brother to manage his slaves and "whip them" if necessary.*! Ex-slaves Matilda Poe and Kiziah Love each spoke of owners who whipped and punished their slaves.** With the expansion of chattel slavery in the southern Indian nations, slaveholders relied on violence as a routine means of punishment, and physical abuse became an uneventful daily occurrence in the lives of the enslaved and slaveholders. Violence directed toward enslaved people differed significantly from the physical correction and even executions prescribed by the legal code as punishments for crimes committed by citizens or other free people in the nations. The violence and coercion leveled against enslaved people went largely unchecked beyond individual slaveholders' calculations of the gains or losses that might be incurred as a result of bodily domination. Physical violence against slaves served not simply as a mode of correction but as a demonstration of slaveholders' power and mastery. In 1816 the agent to the Chickasaws reported to his superiors that "several negroes have been lately murdered in this nation in a most barbarous, cruel, and unprovoked manner.' In one case, an Indian master killed one of his slaves and defended the attack by stating that he owned the slave and thus could kill him.*® Violence against enslaved women stretched across time and space when slaveholders laid claim to enslaved women's future children and when they sold children away from their mothers and families.

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Krauthamer, *Black Slaves, Indian Masters*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.37

The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860

Calvin Schermerhorn

WORK	The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 6–7 · Yale University Press, 2015.

Excerpt

Each chapter focuses on a small number of subjects connected to one another, and each examines a challenge of capitalist development. One of the obstacles to the growth and development of an interstate market was that the value of things was locally contextualized and the terrain bristled with obstructions. Chapter 1 follows the long, bitter trail of captives driven by Francis E. Rives and his partners from eastern Virginia to the lower South in 1818 and the economic geography of a slave market serving a booming cotton country. Rives and his partners faced the problem of how to transport assemblages or coffles of captives many hundreds of miles along poor roads, over wide rivers, and through Indian nations. Like captives, bank money and other financial paper typically did not travel well, and Rives's strategy had to account for what amounted to a tax on distance at the point of sale. He and his partners were small traders whose firm serves as a baseline for the business. Poorly capitalized and technologically limited slave traders like Rives continued to drive caravans of captives across the southern United States even into the Civil War, finding niches neglected by more well-organized enslavers.

Success in the slavery business required innovation, and slave traders served financial and not merely agricultural strategies. Chapter 2 traces the rise of an intensely entrepreneurial young businessman, Austin Woolfolk, and his Baltimore-based slaving firm. Woolfolk built a reputation into a brand. Through relentless newspaper advertising he conjured an ongoing slave market before it existed. His firm brokered interstate sales by offering banknotes or liquid assets to debt-burdened Chesapeake slaveholders and sold those captives to countrymen in the lower South who were taking on a mountain of debt in order to expand commodity production. As his firm became a perpetual clearing house for bondspersons, Woolfolk solved problems of supply by cooperating with purchasing agents in places such as Easton on Maryland's Eastern Shore and a sales facility in New Orleans managed by an uncle. To solve problems of transport, his firm bought excess space from merchant shippers, giving Baltimore's maritime community a financial stake in the interstate slave trade. Woolfolk's enterprise accelerated a demographic catastrophe among African-descended families in the Chesapeake, but even those north of the Mason-Dixon Line were affected by the development of the lower South cotton kingdom.

Chapter 3 follows John Craig Marsh's reinvention from failed New York City dry goods merchant to successful Louisiana sugar planter. Changes in Anglo-American trade after 1815 sped that transformation, as did federal tariff protections for domestic sugar. But Marsh and a partner lowered startup costs by smuggling New Jersey bondspeople to the canebrakes of the lower Mississippi Valley, supplementing their labor force with African-descended New York contract workers whose circumstances amounted to indentured servitude. They entered a place in which official toleration of slave smuggling was a tool to rule a state whose inhabitants were notoriously hard to govern. Marsh's eager pursuit and others like it illuminate tensions between a federal legal framework that ostensibly regulated slaving and the political economies of slavery that existed within the federal republic in the late 1810s.

As North American commercial agriculture expanded in the 1820s and 1830s, British and other foreign capital flooded into American financial institutions and, through them, into the hands of enslavers. Chapter 4 explores the banking schemes of Hugues Lavergne, Edmond Jean Forstall, and their colleagues as they gave slaveholders a means

to draw equity from the bodies of enslaved people, which they bundled and sold abroad. Slaveholders used that leverage to expand sugar and cotton production while slavery's bankers sold the resulting securities to investors in New York, Britain, and Europe. Louisiana's sugar economy thrived on that foreign investment in property banks' mortgagedbacked securities, many eventually sold to investors who had little idea they were investing in slavery. The money supply expanded, and equity in lands and slaves bought more lands and slaves, improving technology such as sugar refining in the process. Demand for bondspersons increased correspondingly.

As finance and trade grew in sophistication, so did interstate slaving firms. Chapter 5 charts the rise and decline of the most successful U.S. slave-trading firm of the 1830s, Franklin and Armfield. Isaac Franklin, John Armfield, and their partners, including the Richmond trader Rice C. Ballard, built an expansive domestic interlocking partnership that was vertically organized and fiercely competitive. Captives circulated through the company's arteries and capital flowed through its veins at a relentless velocity. Franklin was the apotheosis of slavery's capitalist and solved the problem of interstate remittances by burrowing into the New Orleans banking community and using cotton bills of exchange. In the 1830s Franklin and Armfield's Chesapeake agencies eclipsed Austin Woolfolk's firm while building a dedicated slaving fleet and running the company like a railroad. The firm's fortunes rose during the flush times of the early to mid–1830s, when the Andrew Jackson administration liberalized foreign trade, boosted state banking while killing the Second Bank of the United States, and accelerated the extirpation of the Indians' lands, all of which helped propel enslavers' fortunes.

Chicago Citations

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Schermerhorn, *The Business of Slavery and the Rise of American Capitalism, 1815-1860*, 6–7.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.38

The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism

Edward E. Baptist

WORK	The Half Has Never Been Told: Slavery and the Making of American Capitalism
SELECTION	4. Left Hand: 1805–1861
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · Basic Books, 2014.

Excerpt

Enslavers shared innovations because the world cotton market was an example of what economists call perfect competition. In fact, it was the example—it was used later in the nineteenth century as the archetype in which the great British economist Alfred Marshall discovered the famous concepts of supply-and-demand curves. The market was so big that no individual producer could control even 1 percent of the total. This meant that individual producers had no reason to hoard innovations in the extraction of labor from neighbors, for a neighbor's increase in production did not change the price the innovator received by a visible amount. Enslavers also had a vested interest in the ability of their neighbors to suppress their own slaves' resistance. So planterentrepreneurs readily shared their labor-control innovations: "The intercourse of experience," wrote one enslaver, is the "solder" of slaveholders' communities, in which "every individual is bound not only by his duties to others, but by his own interests, to extend and nourish this useful interchange of systems."12

Chicago Citations

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.39

The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America

Joshua D. Rothman

WORK	The Ledger and the Chain: How Domestic Slave Traders Shaped America
SELECTION	Dissolutions, 1833-1837
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 25–26 · Basic Books, 2021.

Excerpt

They still owned the Forks of the Road facility, and they managed the buildings and took in rent from slave traders there. They agreed to sell the Duke Street compound to George Kephart, but the sale would not be legally completed for years. They held hundreds of thousands of dollars in customer debt that they needed to work together to collect, and they kept money in the slave trade too. In the summer of 1836, for example, Ballard Franklin and Company extended a $40,000 line of credit to Ballard's Richmond colleague, slave trader and jailor Bacon Tait, and Tait's partner Thomas Boudar, which Tait and Boudar drew on to buy enslaved people in Virginia and ship them to New Orleans." But by the fall of 1836 the partners had stopped buying enslaved people themselves, and by the spring of 1837 they were mostly out of the daily business of slave trading. Over the course of nearly nine years operating their company, they shipped enslaved people from the Chesapeake to the lower South at least sixty-eight times. They rented space on ships belonging to other people twenty-two times, chartered entire vessels nine times, and sent company-owned brigs with enslaved people on thirty-seven voyages. Manifests or other reliable accounts survive for about 80 percent of the shipments. They document 3,426 people sent directly to Isaac Franklin or Rice Ballard, 2,010 people sent by John Armfield or Robert Windsor to other merchants, slaveholders, and slave traders, and 719 people sent by other shippers on vessels the company chartered or on the Tribune, the Uncas, and the Isaac Franklin."* The partners also organized a coffle near the end of every summer between 1829 and 1835, and perhaps in 1828 and 1836 as well. Documentation of how many enslaved people they walked overland is sparse, and the 458 people whose passage can be demonstrated substantiate that the partners bought, moved, and sold more than 6,600 men, women, and children. A conservative estimate accounting for missing ship manifests and coffles would place the figure somewhere in the range of 8,500 people. Including the numbers of people the partners probably dealt in before they began working together, Isaac Franklin, John Armfield, and Rice Ballard bore direct responsibility for the forced displacement and sale of well over 10,000 human beings during their careers in the slave trade. No other traders of their era came close. Notarial records show that Isaac Franklin, his nephew James Franklin, and company agents sold 1,625 enslaved people in the city of New Orleans. They effectively sold what was probably a similar number of people to buyers who took possession of the enslaved at the levee and who would have recorded their ownership with a notary only if they chose to or when they transferred ownership to someone else. Franklin, Armfield, and Ballard dealt most of the other enslaved people they brought to the lower South in Natchez. Slaveholders throughout Mississippi and northern Louisiana kept evidence of purchases made there in their private papers. A smattering of that evidence has survived. Most of it has been lost or destroyed over time, and along with it proof of the ultimate destinies of thousands of Black people. In a way, the partners' retreat from the slave trade came at a bad time. 'The federal government sold more public land in Mississippi in 1835 than it had sold in the entire country a few years earlier. Cotton production kept increasing by tens of thousands of bales annually, and average market prices between 1834 and 1836 still stayed higher than they had been in a decade. Banks in the region kept churning out banknotes and loans to capitalize on the growth, and they fueled it further. Rampant speculation and skyrocketing prices ensued for nearly everything, including and especially for enslaved people, who would bring more land into cultivation and make more cotton and justify more loans.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.40

Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South

Michael Tadman

WORK	Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South
SELECTION	The Scale of Negro Speculation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 19–20 · University of Wisconsin Press, 1989.

Excerpt

Besides, there is the persistent natural increase of the old-established slave states; as Pinckney observed, Virginia by 1787 already had “more slaves than she wanted.” Added to that is the temptation of greatly higher slave prices in states such as Georgia and Louisiana, compared with Virginia and certain of her near neighbors. But the documentation generated by the domestic traffic of this period was relatively unspectacular compared with the African trade; there is no equivalent to the shipping and port statistics of the latter. Perhaps all we can do for the present is to point to the possibility of a substantial pre-1808 domestic slave traffic. The fact that from 1787 to 1798 only Georgia of the southern states permitted African importations might well have encouraged the domestic trade. Even South Carolinas maverick policy of reopening the African trade from 1803 to 1807 seems not to have greatly affected the numbers for 1787 to 1807 as a whole. African importations, it appears, accounted for rather fewer than half of the 200,000 slaves that were shifted into Georgia and the net importing states. 19 When we look beyond 1807 and to the 1810s we begin to move to somewhat safer ground. In about 1808, a traveller in Virginia reported that “the Carolina Slave dealers get frequent supplies from this state, particularly from the eastern shore.” And in the same year Christian Shultz observed traders with a shipload of blacks on their “slow voyage up river to Natchez.” Two years later, William Rochel was advertising in the Natchez Weekly Chronicle, I have upwards of twenty likely Virginia born slaves now in a flat boat lying in the river at Natchez, for sale cheaper than has been sold here for years.

And, leafing through various Virginia newspapers for 1810, Frederic Bancroft found, for example, that “several regular traders had appeared at Fredericksburg” and, like a certain John Stannard, were announcing “I WILL GIVE CASH for a few LIKELY YOUNG NEGROES.” (The significance of cash purchases, as we Shall see in a later chapter, was crucial.) In 1812, Hezekiah Niles in his Weekly Register (Baltimore) informed his readers that | If there is anything that ought to be supremely hated,—it is the present infamous traffic that is carried on in several of the middle states, and especially Maryland, in negroes, for the Georgia and Louisiana markets. I blush for the honor and art of printing when | see advertisements published in the newspapers openly avowing the trade, and soliciting business, with the indifference of dealers in horses.!!

Jesse Torrey, from his interviews and investigations into the trade, in 1815 gave a picture of a trading system which had already established long and to him repellent traditions. While visiting the District of Columbia he observed “a procession of men, women, and children, resembling that of a funeral.... They were [slaves] bound together in pairs, some with ropes, and some with iron chains,” who were being driven by traders to Georgia. He found the trade with Georgia to be so firmly established that “in the middle states, the general title applied to slave traders, indiscriminately, is Georgia-men.” And slaves were well versed in the dangers of the trade. “It is,” he wrote a frequent custom in the District of Columbia, Maryland, and Delaware, for masters to endeavor to reform their bad slaves, by terrifying them with threats of selling them for the Georgia market, or ‘to Carolina’ them; which is often carried into effect.

As to the extent of the District of Columbia’s trade, he wrote, I then supposed the instances of the streets of the city consecrated to freedom, being paraded with people led in captivity, were rare. But I soon ascertained that they were quite frequent, that several hundred people, including not legal slaves only, but many kidnapped freemen and youths

bound to service for a term of years... are annually collected at Washington (as if it were an emporium of slavery), for transportation to the slave regions.

At about the same time, John Randolph, who had once defended the African trade, bitterly condemned the District of Columbia' involvement in the interregional slaving business. He was "mortified" that slaves were being herded through the capital city "incarcerated and chained down, and thence driven in fetters like beasts," their families rent asunder, all for the gratification of hardhearted masters and traders.!2

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.41

They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers

WORK	They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South
SELECTION	Chapter 6, That 'Oman Took Delight in Sellin' Slaves
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 134–135 · Yale University Press, 2019.

Excerpt

Bills of sale also reveal that slave traders throughout the South bought slaves from and sold slaves to women on a regular basis. On December 16, 1845, Harriet A. Heath purchased a twenty- three- year- old enslaved woman named Jane from Ziba Oakes, and on July 8, 1846, she came back to him for another purchase. This time she bought a twenty- eight- year- old enslaved woman named Dianna who was "warranted sound and healthy."[36] Elihu Creswell bought a slave from Marie Carraby; Miss Eleanor Hainline bought a slave from George Ann Botts, John Hagan sold a slave to Mrs. Mathilda Mascey; Margaret Flood sold a slave to John Rucker White; and William Talbott sold a slave to Mrs. Louise Marie Eugenie Bailly Blachard.[37] It is not clear whether these women went to their local slave market to buy or sell their slaves, but they certainly negotiated directly with slave traders and dealers and fi nalized the transactions with them.

Slave traders' account books and ledgers offer further evidence of transactions with women. The slave- trading partners Tyre Glen and Isaac Jarratt sold enslaved people to Clarissa H. Mabson, Elizabeth Nobles, and Nancy Capehart and bought one from Sally M. Craw. Between 1849 and 1859, John White bought and sold enslaved people to women on at least forty- eight occasions, and he recorded seven additional sales without dates. Several of White's transactions are worthy of note. In 1849, Madame Mollere bought fi ve enslaved people— three women, one man, and one of unspecifi ed sex—from White. She purchased another enslaved woman the following year. Three other women, Mrs. A. Cross, Mrs. Newman, and Mademoiselle Bersije, also bought enslaved women from White that year. While White's female customers overwhelmingly bought enslaved girls and women from him, some, especially those engaged in sugarcane cultivation and processing, spent their money on enslaved men. In September 1852, Madame Burke of Lafourche Parish bought two enslaved young men, a twenty- year- old named Jack Barnet and a seventeen- year- old named Wiley Shields, from White for twelve hundred dollars each. He made a thousand- dollar profi t. All together, at least thirty- fi ve women bought enslaved people from him.[38]

White women were not anomalies at local slave auctions, either, and no group could testify more powerfully to white women's presence at and involvement in slave auctions than the enslaved people who were there. Formerly enslaved people remembered these women as astute, sophisticated, and calculating slave- market consumers. One formerly enslaved person remembered several white women at the public sale of a mixed- race woman; when the woman was placed on the auction block, the white women in the crowd exclaimed, "I don't want that mulatto bitch here." It was common for white men to purchase mixed- race women as part of the "fancy trade," a sector of the slave trade that catered almost exclusively to white men who sought to purchase sexual slaves. The white women who objected to the sale of this mixed- race enslaved woman probably knew this.[39]

Author's Notes

36. Bill of sale from Ziba Oakes to Harriet A. Heath, December 16, 1845, vol.: 006A, Page: 00515, and July 8, 1846, vol.: 006B, Page: 00082, Series: S213050, SCDAH.

37. Act of Sale, Marie Aimee Carraby to Elihu Creswell, Recorded before Theodore Stark, July 25, 1850, Act of Sale, George Ann Botts to Miss Eleanor Hainline, Recorded before Stuart Lewis, November 11, 1850, Act of Sale, John Hagan to Mrs. Mathilda Mascey, Recorded before Theodore Guyol, February 19, 1850, Act of Sale, Margaret Flood to John Rucker White, Recorded before Theodore

Stark, May 17, 1850, Act of Sale, William Talbott to Mrs. Louise Marie Eugenie Bailly Blachard, Recorded before Adolphe Boudousquie, November 28, 1850, Annual Conveyance Vendor and Vendee Indexes, New Orleans Conveyance Records Offi ce, New Orleans Notarial Archives, New Orleans, Louisiana. Hereafter cited as NONA.

38. Tyre Glen Slave Trade Account Books for January 1, 1830–December 31, 1833, and January 1, 1834–December 31, 1853, Tyre Glen Papers, Manuscript Department, Duke University Library, Duke University, Durham, North Carolina, RASP; Isaac Jarratt Slave Trade Account Book for January 1, 1832–December 31, 1881, Jarratt- Puryear Family Papers, 1807–1865, Manuscript Department, Duke University Library, Duke University, RASP; John White Account Book, R.B. Chinn Collection, Missouri History Museum Archives, Saint Louis.

39. Interview with unidentifi ed formerly enslaved person in Unwritten History of Slavery,

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Jones-Rogers, *They Were Her Property*, 134–135.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.42

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

WORK	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom
SELECTION	3. The Steamboat Sublime
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 86–87 · Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

86 river of dark dreams lllllllllllllllllllllll observers encountered the city as financial center, global market hub, and export-processing zone, a city where the pathways ultimately followed by goods and people were presaged in paper: circuits of credit and capital.[42]

The repatterning of the global economy—American cotton, British cap ital—was daily made material in the shape of human beings, lined up along the walls of the slave pens, available for inspection. At the epicenter of the Mississippi Valley economy was the city's slave market, the largest in the South. The emergence of the city of New Orleans and of the river trade that sustained it depended on the forcible relocation of as many as one million enslaved people from the declining agricultural regions of slavery's Upper- South heartland (especially Maryland and Virginia) to the emerging regions of the Lower-South cotton boom (Georgia, Alabama, Mississippi, Louisiana).[43]

During the trading season, thousands of people were daily put up for sale in the slave traders' high-walled "pens"—as many as twenty separate establishments during the peak years of the slave trade, in the 1830s and 1850s. Dressed in blue suits and calico dresses, turned out in front of the pens lining Gravier and Baronne streets in the city's business district, and Chartres and Esplanade just downriver from the French Quarter, these slaves embodied the future of their buyers and the region as a whole: their labor converted the forests of the Mississippi Valley into the cleared fields of the Cotton Kingdom; their reproduction transfigured their flesh and their families into their owners' legacies— white families made, over time, out of the broken pieces of black ones; their domestic service covered over the barbarism of slavery with the social forms of civilization. The commercial civilization of the nineteenth century, the pathways of supposed progress that stretched upriver from New Orleans and out across the broad alluvial plain of the Mississippi Valley (or, for that matter, from the cotton fields of Louisiana to the looms in Lancashire), was enunciated in the labor of its slaves.[44]

In addition to their labor (and that of hundreds of thousands of others who were sold in the smaller slave markets of the Mississippi Valley—at Donaldsonville, Clinton, and East Baton Rouge in Louisiana; at Natchez, Vicksburg, and Jackson in Mississippi; at every roadside tavern, county courthouse, and crossroads across the Lower South), the slaves sold in New Orleans represented a congealed form of the capital upon which the commercial devel opment of the Valley depended. Because, according to the ethical and legal The Steamboat Sublime 87 lllllllllllllllllllllll norms of slaveholding civilization, enslaved people were more partible than land, because there was a ready spot market in human beings in every Southern city on every day of the week, and because they could be moved from place to place depending on the disposition of a lawsuit or the division of an estate, enslaved people represented a primary form of collateral in the credit- based economy of the Mississippi Valley.[45] The cords of credit and debt—of advance and obligation—that cinched the Atlantic economy together were anchored with the mutually defining values of land and slaves: without land and slaves, there was no credit, and without slaves, land itself was valueless. Promises made in the Mississippi Valley were backed by the value of slaves and fulfilled in their labor. If the dollar was the universal equivalent of the steamboat world, as often as not its value turned out to be backed by flesh rather than gold. The commercial geography of capitalism and slavery in the Cotton Kingdom was shaped in dialectical interchange with the ecology of the Mississippi Valley. All told, there were something like 17,000 miles of steamboat-navigable river

connecting New Orleans to the settlements, village, towns, and cities in the heartland of North America. As the steamboat economy spread upward along inland rivers and streams, it pushed the increasingly archaic upriver economy of the keelboats farther and farther back along the Mississippi's tributary streams, until keelboats serviced only the most remote capillaries of Valley commerce. Somewhere around 1840, however, the steamboat economy reached its physical limit: the point along each of these thousands of waterways beyond which the water was too shallow or the channel too narrow for a steamboat to pass. "No form of inland transportation," the historian Louis Hunter wrote, "has been more bounded by geographic limitations than the river steamboat."[46]

Author's Notes

42. Buckingham, Slave States of America, vol. 1, 331 (see also 352–358); Cunynghame, A Glimpse of the Great Western Republic, 220; Hamilton, Men and Manners in America, vol. 2, 201–216; Baird, View of the Valley of the Mississippi, 262–268; Charles Lyell, A Second Visit to the United States of North America (London: J. Murray, 1849), vol. 2, 159–164.

43. Frederic Bancroft, Slave Trading in the Old South (Baltimore: J. H. Furst, 1931); Michael Tadman, Speculators and Slaves: Masters, Traders, and Slaves in the Old South (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1989); Walter Johnson, Soul by Soul: Life Inside 506 lllllllllllllllllllllll T. Takaki, A Pro-slavery Crusade: The Agitation to Reopen the African Slave Trade (New York: Free Press, 1971); David M. Potter, The Impending Crisis, 1848–1861 (New York: Harper and Row, 1976), 385–404; and Manisha Sinha, The Counterrevolution of Slavery: Politics and Ideology in Antebellum South Carolina (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2000), 125–186.

44. Johnson, Soul by Soul, 2–3, passim.

45. Richard H. Kilbourne, Jr., Debt, Investment, and Slaves: Credit Relations in East Feliciana Parish, Louisiana (Tuscaloosa: University of Alabama Press, 1995).

46. Hunter, Steamboats on the Western Rivers, 216–218; Kane, The Western River Steamboat, 10, 24–26.

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Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 86–87.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.43

Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market

Walter Johnson

WORK	Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market
SELECTION	E Pilogue : S Outhern Hi S T Ory And The S Lave Trade
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 217–218 · Harvard University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

For all of the smoothing over and covering up that characterized their daily activities, the slave pens provided a remarkably clear exposi tion of the nature of slavery-a person with a price. There were, of course, other available definitions, other answers to the question "What is slavery?"answers that emphasized production or paternalism or poli tics or violence. And there were other places to go to see slavery: plantations where the slave mode of production was visible in the fields; white churches and universities across the South where the spiritual and moral benefits of slavery were floridly proclaimed; northern and Euro pean cotton-finishing factories where the full reach of "the slave econ omy" was daily evident; the halls of Congress where the influence of the "Slave Power" was tallied in a series of compromises between "North" and "South" which outlined the political history of the ante bellum period. Increasingly, however, and with revolutionary effect, opponents of slavery argued that slavery was best seen in the slave market.

It had not always been so. The central document of early abolition ism, Theodore Dwight Weld's American Slavery As It Is (1839), had very little to say about the slave market. It was, instead, a catalog of bodily tortures. Drawing upon southern newspapers and runaway advertise ments which sought to identify escaped slaves by their mortifying injuries, Weld was able to draw back the veil that protected "the pecu liar institution" from critical eyes. Slavery for Weld was a system of unchecked brutality, made grotesquely visible on the suffering bodies of the slaves.[6] Even today, in an age inured to violence by movie-made brutality, American Slavery As It Is is hard to read. And yet nineteenth century slaveholders were quick to develop an answer to this critique of slavery's inhumane brutality. The maimings and the rapes were isolated episodes, they argued, and they set about publicizing the "paternalist" reforms that would restore to the system of slavery its good name. They broke the system of slavery into hundreds of thousands of isolated sets of human relations between individual masters and individual slaves and argued that the violence of slavery was a matter of generally benevolent human relations gone awry, of the personal failings of particular owners, of bad masters who gave slavery a bad name, not an inevitable feature of the system itself.

Thinking about the slave trade, however, made possible an entirely different account of the relation between master and slave. J. W. C. Pennington described his motivation for writing his narrative of slavery this way: "My feelings are always outraged when I hear them speak of 'kind masters,' 'Christian masters,' 'the mildest form of slavery, 'well fed and well clothed slaves' as extenuations of slavery." Pennington did not deny that such things existed, but he thought that they were misleading forms taken by a more fundamental relation: "The being of slavery, its soul and its body, lives and moves in the chattel principle, the property principle, the bill of sale principle; the cart-whip, starvation, and naked ness, are its inevitable consequences," he wrote. Sale from a good master to a bad one, from the "mildest form of slavery" to the "worst of which the system is possible," from the "favorable circumstances" of slavery in Maryland, Virginia, and Kentucky to the killing fields of Alabama, Mississippi, and Louisiana was, in Pennington's formulation, "the legitimate working of the great chattel principle." "It is no acci dental result," he continued, "it is the fruit of the tree. You cannot constitute slavery without the chattel principle-and with the chattel principle you cannot save it from these results. Talk not about kind and Christian masters. They are not masters of the system. The system is master of them."7 Through an outline of the philosophy and practice of the slave trade, Pennington was able to convey the complicity of all slaveholders (no matter their individual merits) in the most brutal results of the

system of slavery.

Author's Notes

6. Theodore Dwight Weld, American Slavery as It Is: Testimony of a Thousand Witnesses (New York: American Anti-Slavery Society, I 839). For this strain of antislavery thinking, see Elizabeth B. Clark, "'The Sacred Rights of the Weak': Pain, Sympathy, and the Culture of Individual Rights in Antebellum America," Journal of American History, 82 (I99S), 463-493; for the abolitionist investment in slaves' mortified bodies, see Saidiya V. Hartman, Scenes of Subjection: Terror, Slavery, and Self-Making in the Nineteenth-Century America (New York: Oxford University Press, I997).

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.44

Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic

Erskine Clarke

WORK	Dwelling Place: A Plantation Epic
SELECTION	Princeton
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 88–89 · Yale University Press, 2005.

Excerpt

Charles struggled to find some reasonable, middle path that was in "the best interests of the coloured population and that at the same time could receive the approbation of the whites." Without such a way he would be left with the freedom of a terrible choice —of deciding either for his Christian duty or for the home he loved. What was equally troubling for him was the possibility that his struggle was simply a "disinclination" of his own will to decide for his Christian duty—a disinclination rooted in sin, in his own self-love.

Charles turned his attention for a while to the American Colonization Society as a means of addressing slavery in the United States. It seemed such a glorious scheme, so full of reason and goodwill. The black population of the country would simply be sent back to West Africa, where a "civilized and Christianized republic" could be established in Liberia. There the former slaves could form a powerful republic to suppress the slave trade, open trade with the nations in the interior of Africa, and send from among their numbers missionaries and teachers to reclaim their African brothers and sisters from "their heathenish condition." Charles thought it "a noble design!"1[8] And it was noble indeed — unless, of course, you were a slave who wanted freedom in the United States rather than a one-way trip to Liberia, or a white planter who had no desire to lose slave labor. And that was the rub —the scheme carried with it a deep racism that was beginning to be denounced, and it reflected a profound economic and political naivete.

By the middle of May 1830, with graduation from Princeton looming, Charles felt the pressure building for some decision. He was, he wrote Mary, "uncertain that I should make Georgia my home." He reminded her, "I have always been deeply interested for the Coloured population in slavery in the United States. How it has long been a doubt in my mind whether I ought to return to Georgia and endeavor to do what I can for them there, and also where as God shall give me opportunity, or devote myself at once to them, in some special efforts in connection with the Colonization Society, or in some other manner." He did not know, he said, "which way the scale will turn," and he prayed "for light from on high to shine and make the path of duty plain before my face." One thing he was certain of—it was "high time that our country was taking some measures of some sort whose ultimate tendency shall be the emancipation of nearly three million of men, women, and children who are held in the grossest bondage, and with the highest injustice."19 Perhaps he was thinking of those who worked the fields at the Retreat or ate by the evening fires of Carlawter.

Author's Notes

8. PRINCETON

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Shortened citation:

Clarke, *Dwelling Place*, 88–89.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.45

Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves

Ira Berlin

WORK	Generations of Captivity: A History of African-American Slaves
SELECTION	Prologue: Slavery and Freedom
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 7–8 · Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2003.

Excerpt

The division between the enslaved many and the free few increased during the nineteenth century as members of the migration generations were propelled from the southern seaboard across the continent. Their divided history—as tens of thousands went south to construct a new slave society in the southern interior and hundreds fled north to create a free one—set the stage for the Great Jubilee and the emergence of the freedom generations.

Tracing the generations of African and African-American captivity across the centuries requires sensitivity to place as well as time. The geography of slave life changed with its history. Whereas the charter generations' history can be understood by viewing slavery from Dutch New Netherland, English Chesapeake, French Louisiana, and Spanish Florida, changes in American society—mostly in the eighteenth century—require that the plantation and revolutionary generations be viewed on a larger canvas: the North, the Chesapeake, lowcountry South Carolina and Georgia, and the lower Mississippi Valley. The westward expansion of the United States in the nineteenth century necessitates yet another geography of slavery. The migration generations are divided not merely north and south but between the old seaboard South and the new southern interior. As with many other aspects of American life, the Civil War created— perhaps for the first time—a common African-American experience.

Chicago Citations

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Berlin, *Generations of Captivity*, 7–8.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.46

Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America

Ira Berlin

WORK	Many Thousands Gone: The First Two Centuries of Slavery in North America
SELECTION	Prologue: Making Slavery, Making Race
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 2–3 · Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1998.

Excerpt

A number of corollaries follow from a recognition that even in slavery's cramped quarters there was room for negotiation. First, even as they confronted one another, master and slave had to concede, however Making Slavery, Making Race 3 grudgingly, a degree of legitimacy to the other. No matter how reluctantly it was given (or, more likely, extracted), such a concession was difficult for either party to acknowledge, for masters presumed their own absolute sovereignty and slaves never relinquished the right to control their own destiny. But no matter how adamant the denials, nearly every interaction of master and slave forced such recognition, for the web of interconnections between master and slave necessitated a coexistence that fostered cooperation as well as contestation.

Second, because the circumstances of such contestation and cooperation continually changed, slavery itself continually changed. The refusal of either party to concede the realities of master–slave relations meant that slavery was intrinsically unstable. No bargain could last for very long, for as power slipped from master to slave and back to master, the terms of slavery would again be renegotiated. Slavery was never made, but instead was continually remade, for power—no matter how great— was never absolute, but always contingent.

Thus, understanding that a person was a slave is not the end of the story but the beginning, for the slaves' history was derived from experiences that differed from place to place and time to time and not from some unchanging transhistorical verity. In some sense, this truism has become a staple of recent histories of all subordinate classes, not only slaves but also servants, serfs, and wage workers. Surely, it would come as no surprise to say that all wage workers at any particular moment had much in common, both in shared experiences and in opposition to their employers; but the lives of steel workers and cigar makers differed, as did their languages, institutions, and relationships with their employers, their fellow workers, and their families. If at times steel workers and cigar makers stood together against their employers on matters of compensation, working conditions, and political allegiance, few would expect their opposition to take precisely the same form. Yet, because slavery was such a powerful, all-encompassing relationship, scholars have often been trans- fixed by the commonalities that slavery produced, by the dynamics of the relationship between master and slave, and by the personality traits this most extreme form of domination appears to have generated.

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Berlin, *Many Thousands Gone*, 2–3.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.47

The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South

John W. Blassingame

WORK	The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South
SELECTION	The Americanization of the
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 49–50 · Oxford University Press, 1979.

Excerpt

The Americanization of the Slave and the Africanization of the South Southern whites cannot walk, talk, sing, conceive of laws or justice, think of sex, love, the family or freedom without responding to the presence of the Negroes. Ralph Ellison Much of the debate about American slavery has centered on the question of the extent of the acculturation of the African, how and when he became Americanized. Though few scholars have realized it, the Americanization of the African in the South was a process similar in many ways to the acculturation of slaves in other places where bondsmen, black and white, influenced and were influenced by their enslavers. The key determinants in the acculturation of bondsmen historically have been the length of their servitude, the parallels between their culture and that of their masters, the role of the masters' governmental and religious leaders in protecting, training, and converting the slaves to their faith, and the treatment and labor of the bondsmen. Ignoring most of these factors, historians have been confused about the manner in which the African slave in the South became an American and contributed to his master's culture. One way of clearing up some of the confusion is to compare the acculturation of the Southern bondsmen with that of Africans in Latin America and Europeans and American whites enslaved in Africa.

From the eighth to the nineteenth century hundreds of thousands of Europeans were enslaved by Arabs, Turks, and West AMTCans, HULOpean servitude fO the iviosiems began when s\raDs from North Africa launched their campaign to conquer the Iberian peninsular in 711. After the expulsion of the Arabs from the Iberian peninsular in the fifteenth century, Moslems frequently raided the coasts of Spain, Portugal, Italy, Greece, France, England, Ireland, and Iceland and the islands of Sicily, Sardinia, Corsica, and Cyprus, sacked their towns and carried their inhabitants back to North Africa, where they were enslaved because they were "infidels." Most of the white slaves were Spaniards, Portuguese, and Italians captured during the centuries-long religious wars waged by the Moslems and the Christians in all the lands bordering on the Mediterranean Sea. Thousands more Europeans and Americans, shipwrecked on the North and West African coasts or captured by Arab privateers at sea, were also enslaved. Estimates of the number of whites enslaved range between 500,000 and one million. But since Christians and Moslems representing many nations frequently exchanged slaves, captured and recaptured each other's territory, and carried on a brisk business in ransoms, it is difficult to determine the total number of white slaves in Africa at any given place or time. The best figures we have are for Algiers, where during the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries there were between 25,000 and 40,000 white slaves. Whatever the number of whites enslaved, the primary reason historians are able to document their story was the Arab practice of ransoming Christian bondsmen. Fortunately for scholars, those whites who recovered their freedom often wrote narratives, letters and petitions, and gave interviews and depositions describing their enslavement.'

Terrified by their Arab captors (and fearing they would be eaten by them), whites who were shipwrecked on the North African coast initially suffered greatly from hunger and thirst.

1. Stephen Clissold, The Barbary Slaves (London, 1977), 1-38; Stanley Lane-Poole, The Barbary Corsairs (New York, 1901), 195-225, 235-73; H. G. Barnby, The Prisoners of Algiers (London, 1966), 1-57. It should be noted that the Europeans enslaved thousands of Moslems in the same fashion as the Christians were enslaved.

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Blassingame, *The Slave Community*, 49–50.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.48

American Slavery, 1619-1877

Peter Kolchin

WORK	American Slavery, 1619-1877
SELECTION	Origins and Consolidation
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 5–6 · Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

But even ethnic distinction was not essential to slavery; sociologist Orlando Patterson has found that in about one-quarter of fifty-seven slaveholding societies he studied, at least some masters and slaves shared the same ethnic identity.

Although slavery has exhibited such extraordinary diversity over time and space that it might seem virtually impossible to generalize about its nature, a particular type of slavery, which exhibited certain common features, emerged in the Western (that is, Europeanderived) world in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries. Most prevalent in the New World (the Americas), although it also existed in other areas of European colonization (such as South Africa), this modern Western slavery was a product of European expansion and was preeminently a system of labor. It emerged to meet the pervasive labor shortage that developed wherever landholders tried to grow staple crops—sugar, coffee, tobacco, rice, and later cotton— for market in areas of population scarcity. Spreading slowly at first, it assumed enormous proportions in the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries and helped propel the economic transformation of the leading colonial powers, especially Great Britain.

This new system of bonded labor was distinguished by both its scope and its ethnic composition. It was closely associated with the spread of the plantation as a productive unit ideally suited for the regimentation of agricultural labor and hence the large-scale cultivation of staple crops; although slaves in the Americas served in diverse capacities, New World slavery was preeminently geared to such commercial agriculture. The Southern United States represented the northernmost outpost of this plantation system, which reached its apogee of organizational development on the large sugar estates of Jamaica, Saint Domingue (later called Haiti), Cuba, and other Caribbean colonies. Equally important was the new ethnic composition of modern Western slavery: despite some exceptions —a small although by no means negligible number of Indian slaves, a smaller number of Indian and black slave owners—most slaves were Africans and their descendants, whereas most masters were Europeans and their descendants. This ethnic contrast did not totally define the character of New World slavery, for diverse conditions and traditions fostered major variations among slave societies in both slavery and race relations; the very understanding of the terms “white” and “black,” for example, differed in Brazil, Jamaica, Louisiana, and Virginia. Nevertheless, at both the global and the individual level, the racial character of New World slavery was significant: that slavery was predicated on new, unequal relationships between Europe and Africa and between white and black.

Whatever the variations among New World slave societies, their orientation around commercial agriculture gave them an essential unity and made them part of an economic order. Slaves were brought to the Americas for their ability to work; slavery there constituted, first and foremost, a system of labor. As such, it had more in common with the serfdom that was emerging in Russia and some other parts of Eastern Europe than with many of the pre-modern slaveries mentioned above. It is within the context of this modern Western slavery that the development of American slavery is best understood.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.49

Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South

Stephanie M. H. Camp

WORK	Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

This project builds on these histories of the relationships between space, social relations, gender, and power in the Old South. It gives less attention than other studies to the built environment and more to the peopling of plantation space—to the containment and movement of enslaved women and men. It argues that the broad operation of politics in the Old South was profoundly invested in black and white uses of space. Space mattered: places, boundaries, and movement were central to how slavery was organized and to how it was resisted. This project explores planters' attempts to confine slave activity to specific places, the ways enslaved women evaded that captivity, and the perpetual conflicts that arose as a result of these di√ering ideas about how space was to be used. Geography has provided both a way of seeing new aspects of enslaved women's lives and the language to describe those sights.

By the antebellum period (beginning around 1830) laws, customs, and ideals had come together into a systematic constriction of slave movement that helped establish slaveholders' sense of mastery. Planters presided over controlled and controlling landscapes dictating the movements of their slaves into the fields or yards and back to the quarters, with carefully considered breaks and holidays. Morning reveilles, slave patrols, curfews, and laws requiring passes and banning independent travel or meetings were all instituted to limit and control slave movement in both space and time. Enslaved women and men were bound by this "geography of containment," but women in greater numbers and with greater consistency were confined to southern plantations; as a group they enjoyed much less mobility than did men.∞∑

In violation of slaveholders' orders and the state's laws, though, enslaved people left the quarters at night. "Watching every step that they take for the guard or patrol," slaves "venture[d] out" at night to the very woods and swamps that were intended to distinguish legitimate and illicit plantation space.∞∏ "All margins are dangerous," Mary Douglas commented. "If they are pulled this way or that the shape of fundamental experience is altered. Any structure of ideas is vulnerable at its margins."∞π Again and again, enslaved people ran away and created other kinds of spaces that gave them room and time for their families, for rest from work, and for amusement; on occasion, women moved forbidden objects into their quarters to worrisome e√ect. As they moved about, those who had the gift read the sights and sounds of the natural environment—the events of the skies or the squawks of birds—for signs of opportunity or trouble. Others simply looked for the landmarks— distinctive trees and shrubs or outbuildings—that could guide their way along clandestine trails to secret meeting places.

In short, bondpeople created a "rival geography"—alternative ways of knowing and using plantation and southern space that conflicted with planters' ideals and demands. The term "rival geography" was coined by Edward Said and has been used by geographers to describe resistance to colonial occupation.∞∫ I have adapted the term for the slave South, where the challenge for enslaved people was not one of repossession of land in the face of dispossession but of mobility in the face of constraint. Thus the rival geography was not a settled spatial formation, for it included quarters, outbuildings, woods, swamps, and neighboring farms as chance granted them. Where planters' mapping of their farms was defined by fixed places for plantation residents, the rival geography was characterized by motion: the movement of bodies, objects, and information within and around plantation space.∞Ω

The rival geography did not threaten to overthrow American slavery, nor did it provide slaves with autonomous space. Much of the rival geography, such as woods and swamps, was space to which planters and patrols had access, and other parts, including quarters and outbuildings were places over which they also had a large measure of control. Nor was there anything safe about bondpeople's illicit movements or the temporary spaces they created; to the contrary, these activities and areas were truly dangerous. The rival geography did, however, provide space for private and public creative expression, rest and recreation, alternative communication, and importantly, resistance to planters' domination of slaves' every move.

Just as slave resistance was forged in the conditions of enslavement, it gained some of its significance from that same source. The importance of slave resistance cannot be separated from slaveholders' concerns about social control and plantation e≈ciency and attributed solely to its value to the enslaved. Enslaved people's many forms of resistance were struggles for life without reference to their owners as well as responses to their owners' e√orts to deny them, for instance, access to their families or time alone. It is planters who attest to how much slaves' search for space and time to themselves mattered in their own time; slaveholders' violent actions and their words illustrate the extent to which some slave activities cut them to the quick by challenging their authority and, they feared, by making their plantations less e≈cient. That enslaved people were willing to risk gruesome punishments for the sake of a degree of mobility speaks volumes about its importance to them.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.50

Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market

Walter Johnson

WORK	Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 10–11 · Harvard University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

The narratives' account of slavery was equally shaped by the histori cal conditions of antislavery. Unconnected and sometimes unlettered, ex-slave narrators depended upon white northern abolitionists for their access to editors and publishers, their daily livings as orators, and whatever hope they had of freeing family members who remained in the South. White abolitionists, in turn, forced their own version of antislavery upon those who tried to tell their stories of slavery. "Give us the facts," Frederick Douglass was told, "we will take care of the philosophy." The impact of organized antislavery on the narratives must be considered in any effort to use them to write the history of slavery. As accounts which led up to a known ending-the escape of an individual slave-the narratives rarely enlarge upon the daily life, joys, and travails of enslaved communities. As stories of saved souls, they sometimes ignore the sufferings of enslaved bodies. As vehicles for supplying a moralistic bourgeois audience with the ideal slaves they demanded, the narratives often gloss over the anger, dissimulation, sexuality, and occasional brutality of real slaves' daily lives. As entrants into a rhetorical field dominated by white supremacy, they sometimes reproduce the prejudices of their readers.

Though they require careful reading, the nineteenth-century narra tives remain our best source for the history of enslaved people in the slave trade. 24 In what follows I have used three strategies to accomplish the dual task of reading the history of the many in the stories of the few and separating the experience of slavery from the ideology of antislavery.[25] First, I have read the narratives in tandem with sources produced by slaveholders and visitors to the South. Many of the most mundane as well as some of the more incredible aspects of the narrators' ac counts-from descriptions of where slaves slept along the road and what they ate in the pens, to the revelations that some buyers bought slaves as subjects for medical experiments and some slaves shaped their own sales-are supported by other sources. By reading these sources in juxtaposition, I have been able to use them to authenticate as well as interrogate one another.

Second, I have read the narratives for traces of the experience of slavery antecedent to the ideology of antislavery, for the "facts" pro vided by Frederick Douglass without which William Lloyd Garrison could not have fashioned his "philosophy."26 The descriptions of events in the narratives often include telling details which could not be fully contained by the purposes of antislavery editors and amanuenses. Visual descriptions of other slaves, for example, can be read as evidence of the way strangers evaluated one another in the coffles and slave pens.

Likewise, the biographies of other slaves, often presented as a scene setting aside to the narrator's central struggle, can be read as evidence of a history of communal life and collective resistance among slaves in the trade which was largely excised from the narrators' printed ac counts.

Author's Notes

25. This is not to suggest that the "experience" of slavery existed outside of the cultural, religious, and political terms through which slaves imagined it in the South, only that those terms were not reducible to those promulgated by white dominated antislavery in the North. On "experience" see Joan Scott, "The Evi dence of Experience," Critical Inquiry, 17 (1991), 773-797.

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Footnote citation:

Walter Johnson, *Soul by Soul: Life Inside the Antebellum Slave Market* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999), 10–11.

Shortened citation:

Johnson, *Soul by Soul*, 10–11.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.51

American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt

Daniel Rasmussen

WORK	American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt
SELECTION	(Prologue
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Harper, 2011.

Excerpt

They decided that they would die before they would work another day of backbreaking labor in the hot Louisiana sun. Ethnically diverse, politically astute, and highly organized, this slave army challenged not only the economic system of plantation agriculture but also the expansion of American authority in the Southwest. Their January march represented the largest act of armed resistance against slavery in the history of the United States—and one of the defining moments in the his- In the cane fields outside of the city, federal troops teamed up with French planters to fight these slave-rebels—an unholy alliance between government power and slave-based agriculture that would come to define the young American nation as a slave country in the years leading up to the Civil War. Over the course of the conflict, these powerful white men committed unspeakable acts of brutality in service of a stronger nation and a more vibrant economy. Because of that brutality, and because of a shared belief in the importance of a specific form of political and economic development, these government officials and slave owners sought to write this massive uprising out of the history books—to dismiss the bold actions of the slave army as irrelevant and trivial. They succeeded. And in doing so, they laid the groundwork for one of the most remarkable moments of historical amnesia in our national memory. While Nat Turner and John Brown have become household names, Kook and Quamana, Harry Kenner, and Charles Deslondes have barely earned a footnote in American ite tory. Though the 1811 uprising was the largest slave revolt in American history, the longest published scholarly account runs a mere twenty-four pages. This book redresses that silence and tells the story that the planters could not and would not tell—the story of political activity among the enslaved.

Chicago Citations

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Rasmussen, Daniel. *American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt*. New York: Harper, 2011.

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Daniel Rasmussen, *American Uprising: The Untold Story of America's Largest Slave Revolt* (New York: Harper, 2011), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Rasmussen, *American Uprising*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.52

Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802

Douglas R. Egerton

WORK	Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802
SELECTION	00058___e74b8364f3c26ed3031a799a0859820f.pdf
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · University of North Carolina Press, 1993.

Excerpt

The failure of Gabriel was not one of logic; it was one of information. The unusual economic contours of the city masked the complex political realities of the countryside. Unknown to Gabriel, the typical Virginia Republican was not a rebellious craftsman but an agrarian. The important division in the state was not between merchants and artisans but between the rising business class and the slaveholding planters. The egalitarian rhetoric that pledged to make good the promise of the Revolution was aimed only at white males; indeed, aristocrats like Jefferson could more safely preach equality in a slave society than in a free one, for in Virginia the labor problem was solved. The middle-class yeomen had economic and racial ties to the gentry, and the very poor—the blacks—were enslaved.

Chicago Citations

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Egerton, Douglas R. *Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802*. Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1993.

Footnote citation:

Douglas R. Egerton, *Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1993), no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

Shortened citation:

Egerton, *Gabriel's Rebellion*, no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.53

The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition

Manisha Sinha

WORK	The Slave's Cause: A History of Abolition
SELECTION	Chapter 7, Interracial Immediatism
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 196–197 · Yale University Press, 2016.

Excerpt

African Americans had long fashioned a radical critique of the slaveholding Republic. There is an existing literature on black abolitionists who preceded Garrison in opposing colonization and calling for racial equality, but slave resistance has yet to be incorporated in the rise of immediate abolition.[4] The only example of immediatism before the 1830s was the Haitian Revolution. The black roots of immediatism can be traced to the slave rebellions of this era as well as to free black militancy. Free and enslaved resistance formed two sides of the same coin.[5]

Slave rebels inspired abolitionists. Despite recent claims that authorities and witnesses under duress concocted a slave conspiracy, it is highly likely that in 1822 a literate free black carpenter, Denmark Vesey, tried to orchestrate a slave uprising in Charleston, South Carolina. Vesey, who had bought his freedom on winning a lottery, planned a black exodus to Haiti. Two domestic servants revealed the conspiracy. Vesey and his principal lieutenants, Rolla Bennett, Peter Poyas, the African conjurer Gullah Jack Pritchard, and Monday Gell, were executed. Thirty-fi ve slaves were hanged, while others were transported out of the state, whipped, or acquitted. That Vesey or any of the enslaved artisans and servants arrested should imagine President Boyer of Haiti as their liberator and that they were aware of the antislavery speeches of Sen. Rufus King during the Missouri Crisis and of South Carolina's law of 1820 that made manumission harder by requiring the sanction of the legislature indicated their political sophistication. Vesey was a class leader in the AME Church, which had been visited by members of Allen's Philadelphia church in 1817. State authorities harassed church members and used the conspiracy as an excuse to destroy it and banish Rev. Morris Brown and Rev. Henry Drayton. Brown succeeded Allen as head of the AME.[6]

Vesey and his followers may have failed in the short run, but they helped sow the seeds of slavery's destruction. The conspiracy generated a host of proslavery pamphlets in South Carolina. The state passed new restrictive laws on slavery, including the notorious Negro Seamen's Act, which imprisoned all visiting black sailors in violation of federal law and treaties, and Carolinian planter politicians began their antebellum career as leading spokesmen of disunion and slavery. Abolitionists drew the opposite lesson. Commenting on the conspiracy, Theodore Dwight, who had praised the Haitian Revolution, wrote that African slaves "kidnapped by white men and dragged into endless slavery, cannot be expected to be contented with their situation." Walker, the son of a free black woman and an enslaved father, born around 1796 in North Carolina and also a member of the AME, visited Charleston during the conspiracy. In the 1850s the fugitive slave abolitionist Henry Bibb published an account of Vesey's conspiracy, while Henry Highland Garnet and Douglass evoked Vesey's example. In a fi tting coda, Robert Vesey, his son, helped rebuild the Charleston church in 1865, after emancipation. Four years later Garnet described the murder of one of Vesey's hapless betrayers in the streets of New York.[7]

Slave rebellion gave birth to radical abolitionism. Even before the Vesey conspiracy, the Camden slave plot in South Carolina and Bussa's rebellion in Barbados in 1816 gave notice of slaves' restiveness. Following on the heels of Vesey, the Demerara rebellion of 1823 in present-day Guyana, involving over ten thousand slaves, played an important role in British abolitionists' turn to immediatism. The enslaved themselves were inspired by rumors of freedom, Wilberforce's reputation as a powerful friend, abolitionists' attempts to ameliorate the conditions of slavery, and evangelical Christianity in the person of the missionary John Smith. Like the men who assumed leadership in Vesey's conspiracy, the leaders of the Demerara revolt, Quamina, the African deacon, and his son Jack Gladstone, were skilled slaves with positions of authority in their plantations and in Smith's Bethel church. They had called for

withholding of labor. As was the case in most slave rebellions, much of the violence was visited on slaves rather than perpetrated by them.

Not noticed by historians, in 1824 Elizabeth Heyrick coupled her call for immediatism with a defense of the Demerara slave rebels. According to Heyrick, Haiti was living proof of its success, and she blamed the massacres of the revolution on the excesses of planters. In an addendum to her pamphlet on immediate abolition, she reported that the slave insurgents in Demerara had been hanged, some receiving the "protracted torture" of a thousand lashes and being forced to work in chains for the rest of their lives. Are slave rebellions "not in the cause of self-defense from the most degrading and intolerable degradation?" she asked rhetorically. The British extolled Greek resistance to tyranny but handed the slave rebels "a gibbet."[8] Heyrick coupled her call for immediate abolition with a passionate defense of slave resistance.

Besides the large slave rebellions that marked the rise of immediatism, free blacks adopted a militant stance. Robert Wedderburn from Jamaica became a well-known advocate not just of black freedom but also of English radicalism.

Author's Notes

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6. Lionel H. Kennedy and Thomas Parker, eds., An Offi cial Report of the Trials of Sundry Negroes... (Charleston, S.C., 1822); James Hamilton Jr., An Account of the Late Intended Insurrection Among a Portion of the Blacks of this City (Charleston, S.C., 1822); GUE, Twelfth Month, 1822; "The Making of a Slave Conspiracy, Part I," WMQ 58 (October 2001): 913–76; "The Making of a Slave Conspiracy, Part II," WMQ 59 (January 2002): 153–268; Douglas R. Egerton, He Shall Go Out Free: The Lives of Denmark Vesey (Madison, 1999); Egerton "Of Facts and Fables: New Light on the Denmark Vesey Affair," South Carolina Historical Magazine 105 (January 2004): 8–48; Robert L. Paquette, "From Rebellion to Revisionism: The Continuing Debate about the Denmark Vesey Affair," Journal of the Historical Society 4 (Fall 2004): 8–48; James O"Neil Spady, "Power and Confession: On the Credibility of the Earliest Reports of the Denmark Vesey Slave Conspiracy," WMQ 68 (April 2011): 287–304.

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8. L. Glen Inabinet, " 'The July Fourth Incident' of 1816: An Insurrection Plotted by Slaves in Camden, South Carolina," in Herbert A. Johnson, ed., South Carolina Legal History (Spartanburg, S.C., 1980), 209–21; Emilia Viotti da Costa, Crowns of Glory, Tears of Blood: The Demerara Slave Rebellion of 1823 (New York, 1994); Michael Craton, Testing the Chains: Resistance to Slavery in the British West Indies (Ithaca, 1982), chaps. 20, 21; GUE, First Month, 1824; [Elizabeth Heyrick], Immediate not Gradual Abolition... (New York, 1825), 7–8, 13, 21–22.

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Shortened citation:

Sinha, *The Slave's Cause*, 196–197.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.54

Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community

Vanessa M. Holden

WORK	Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Excerpt

The neighborhood where the Southampton Rebellion took place was also home to numerous sites of everyday resistance. Enslaved men were not the only members of the Black community who practiced everyday resistance. Free and enslaved adults and children moved through these sites of resistance throughout their workday. Much like physical geography, enslaved and free Black people experienced and constructed human geography, the mental mapping of both the physical location of humans and their social relationships in space and time, as a composite of many layers. To map the human geography of the many sites of resistance in Southampton County is to look beyond who the creators of the historical sources historians have associated with the rebellion mark as rebels—mostly enslaved men—and see the rebellion as a product of an interconnected community that includes enslaved women and children and free people of color.

Instead of presenting one new narration of the rebellion and the experience of community members, Surviving Southampton maps different communities into the resistive geography of Southampton County. Chapter 1, "Geographies of Surveillance and Control," begins with an exploration of the systems enslavers, landowners, and officials used throughout Virginia's history to attempt to control and constrain African American mobility. These geographies of surveillance and control were present on individual landholdings, in the neighborhood where the rebellion took place, and throughout the county. Whites did their best to extract labor from African Americans and police their movement to that end. Understanding the long history of surveillance allows for a deeper knowledge of the long history of African American evasion and resistance in Southampton County.

Chicago Citations

Bibliography entry:

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.55

South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War

Alice L. Baumgartner

WORK	South to Freedom: Runaway Slaves to Mexico and the Road to the Civil War
SELECTION	Introduction
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Basic Books, 2020.

Excerpt

For all of their similarities, the northern and southern routes differed in one important respect: numbers. Determining how many enslaved people actually reached Mexico is difficult. My estimate, based on scattered and incomplete Mexican sources, puts the number somewhere between three and five thousand people—considerably fewer than the thirty thousand to one hundred thousand runaways who crossed the Mason-Dixon Line. The number of slaves who reached Mexico was undeniably small. Still, each escape was important in its own right. And their collective story had strategic and political significance out of all proportion to the numbers involved. Their experiences reorient our understanding of the Civil War, showing that one of the most distinctively "American" events in US history was in part ignited by the enslaved people who escaped to the south and the laws by which they claimed their freedom in Mexico.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.56

Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation

John Hope Franklin and Loren Schweninger

WORK	Runaway Slaves: Rebels on the Plantation
SELECTION	Preface
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · Oxford University Press, 1999.

Excerpt

Meanwhile, pursuing his own line of inquiry, Larry Gara looked at the myths surrounding the Underground Railroad. Although the Underground Railroad was a reality, Gara said, "'much of the material relating to it belongs in the realm of folklore rather than history." It was not, he asserted, a well-organized transportation system offering multitudes of slaves safe passage to the ''/Promised,Land of freedom." Indeed, most runaways remained in the South, few were aided by abolitionists or anyone else, and many fled with a sense of terrible urgency.*

In the decades that followed, a large number of books and articles about slavery appeared. During the 1970s most of the literature focused on black culture and black consciousness and on slave communities and slave family life. Some of these authors argued that the emergence of a unique African American culture—extended kinship systems, folk tales, spirituals, Afro-Christianity—was an important vehicle for resisting slavery. Only a few of them discussed the importance of runaways. John Blassingame, for example, dedicated a chapter in his seminal study The Slave Community to rebels and runaways, and Gerald W. Mullin broke new ground in Flight and Rebellion with an imaginative use of runaway advertisements.°

Despite the large number of books and articles touching on the subject, there is still no full-length study of runaway slaves. In fact, much of the scholarship about slave resistance continues to be dominated by the conceptual framework and the focus presented by Herbert Aptheker more than a half-century ago: 'The Machinery of Control,"" 'Early Plots and Rebellions,"' 'The Turner Cataclysm and Some Repercussions,"" and 'The Civil War Years."" Perhaps no book has "'exercised such dominion over a subject of prime importance,'" Genovese writes, as American Negro Slave Revolts. Peter Kolchin recently observed, however, that Aptheker probably exaggerated the extent of slave unrest. He lamented that there is still no adequate study of slave resistance or slave flight.®

We have undertaken an extensive examination of "slave flight" between 1790 and 1860. It reveals, among other things, some problems of management of the South's "peculiar institution." It shows how a significant number of slaves challenged the system and how the great majority of them struggled to attain their freedom even if they failed.

The price they paid for their unwillingness to submit was obviously enormous. This study reveals how slave owners marshaled considerable effort to prevent the practice of running away, meted out punishments to slaves who disregarded the rules, and established laws and patrols to control the movement of slaves. It also exposes the violence and cruelty that were inherent in the slave system. Indeed, it shows, perhaps better than any other approach, how slaves resisted with various forms of violence and how slave owners responded, at times brutally, to demonstrate their authority over their human chattel.

Even today important aspects of the history of slavery remain shrouded in myth and legend. Many people still believe that slaves were generally content, that racial violence on the plantation was an aberration, and that the few who ran away struck out for the Promised Land in the North or Canada. We have carefully scrutinized those who challenged the system; when, where, and how they ran away; how long they remained out; how they survived away from the plantation; and how and when they were brought back and punished. We examine the motives of absentees, or those who left the farm or plantation for a few days or weeks; the incentives of outlyers, or those who hid out in the woods for months, sometimes years; and the activities of maroons, who established camps in remote swamps and bayous. We also examine how "term slaves," or those to be emancipated at a future date, responded to their status and how

free blacks assisted their brethren and on occasion themselves became runaways.

Of equal importance, we seek to analyze the motives and responses of the slaveholding class and other whites. How did owners react to such intransigence in their midst? How did they attempt to halt the flow of runaways? What laws did they seek to enact? What punishments did they administer? How successfully did they curtail such dissidence? Indeed, it is less important to discover what happened to individual slaves than to understand the relationship between the owners and the runaways who challenged the system, a relationship that reveals perhaps as well as any perspective the true nature of the South's peculiar institution.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.57

Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South

Stephanie M. H. Camp

WORK	Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South
SELECTION	Chapter 2, I Could Not Stay There: Women, Men, and Truancy
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

Nonetheless, gender-specific roles within the family created di√erent responsibilities and conceptions of acceptable behavior for women and men. Even as Ross's interview testifies to the importance of family to enslaved men, it also a≈rms the distinction between men's and women's family responsibilities and the di√erent pressures those roles brought to bear on them. Ross's leaving slavery and his family behind did not contradict his personal identity as deeply as the same act would have undermined many enslaved women's sense of their womanhood, their obligations to family, and their places in their communities. Gender norms and definitions of female duty helped to shape fugitive behavior by diminishing women's rates of flight.

A final factor preventing women from running away in the same numbers as men was their relative lack of knowledge of geography beyond the plantation. Women did not generally perform the work of transporting people, goods, and messages that took carriage drivers, teamsters, and the runners of errands o√ farms. Thus women rarely became familiar with neighborhood geography or with water craft. As fugitives, if they abandoned the byways for a main road, they were sure to draw attention—and suspicion. One bondman was a regular truant and very "skilled in running away." He had learned to carry a bridle with him so that "if any body should see me in the woods... and asked, 'what are you doing here sir? you are a runaway?'—I said, 'no, sir, I am looking for our old mare;' at other times 'looking for our cows.' For such excuses I was let pass."∞≠ Such "excuses" were useful for men who performed the greater share of chores o√ plantations. Conversely, the possible presence of children, with their own demands of needing to be fed, carried, hurried along, and kept quiet, would only have highlighted the conspicuousness of a woman traversing unfamiliar terrain.∞∞

The dangers that all women and men anticipated if they thought about escape to the North were fearsome: dogs, patrols, unknown directions, cold, heat, lack of food, the risk of capture, and in that event, certain horrific punishment. All in all, the social and the logistical di≈culties were nearly insurmountable for the majority of enslaved people who even bothered to contemplate flight to the North. Even fewer women than men tried it; apparently many women concluded that permanent escape was impossible or undesirable. As a result, they were bound more narrowly to planters' geographies of containment.

Yet enslaved women did not submit to planters' designs for spatial and temporal order by remaining obediently in their assigned places. Instead, like men, they chose truancy, generally by fleeing to the nearest woods or swamps and occasionally to nearby towns. Truancy was particularly important in the lives of enslaved women, but not because it was a "female form" of resistance. It was not; men made up the majority of truants most of the time. Rather, absenteeism is an important part of the story of women's enslavement because women engaged in it more frequently than they ran away as fugitives. Women also played an essential supporting role in the practice of absenteeism by feeding truants. Both of these factors gave gender-specific meaning to women's acts of truancy and to their role in the creation of the rival geography.

Some plantations left documentation that allows us to see how much more frequently women ran away temporarily. In Adams County, Mississippi, John Nevitt presided over Clermont plantation, located on fertile land along the Mississippi River at the state's southwestern border. Nevitt's bondpeople worked Clermont's land producing cotton,

tobacco, and rice, which Nevitt easily traded in nearby Natchez, whence it was transported along the river.∞≤

But the production and sale of these goods was not smooth; rather, it was marred every month by multiple incidents of absenteeism, including many by women.∞≥ Compared with the number of women among fugitives, women's rates of truancy are striking. When women on Nevitt's estate ran away, they generally represented significant proportions of the total numbers of incidents of absenteeism and of the number of truants: with two years excepted, women constituted from 19 to 41 percent of truants.∞∂ The di√ering behaviors of men and women at Clermont plantation are similar to those in other, relatively more opaque but still instructive plantation records. In the summer of 1828, the sole year in which incidents of truancy at the Rockingham plantation in the Beaufort District of South Carolina were documented, 55 percent of the truants were women.∞∑ During the best-recorded period of truancy at James Henry Hammond's Silver Blu√ plantation in South Carolina, the time between his assumption of ownership in December 1831 and the end of his first full and highly tumultuous year, 32 percent of the truants were women.∞∏ Clearly, at least on these three plantations with distinctive records of truancy, women made up a greater proportion of truants than they did of runaways.

Chicago Citations

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.58

River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom

Walter Johnson

WORK	River of Dark Dreams: Slavery and Empire in the Cotton Kingdom
SELECTION	8. The Carceral Landscape
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 230–231 · Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 2013.

Excerpt

For enslaved people, the woods and swamps striated across the grain of the land were a refuge from the mean dominion of cotton. Slaves took to the woods to hunt, trap, and fish to supplement their rations. Deer, raccoons, rabbits, turkeys, opossum, pike, perch, catfish, and shad all populated the woods and waters of the Mississippi Valley, and all were used by slaves to supplement their rations.[49] Charles Ball provided an especially detailed account of enslaved woodsmanship: of how he baited deer with salt, and trapped raccoons and opossum when the "ground was thickly strewed with nuts"; of the six-foot rattlesnake he skinned and stretched on a board; of the way that the peculiar behavior of his hunting dog alerted him to the presence of a panther while he was working in a pond, stripping wet tree branches of their bark, from which he planned to make some "very good ropes." Indeed, Ball thrived in the woods, to such an extent that his overseer said he could "smell the meat" on Ball's body, and began to suspect the slave of stealing cotton. "Charles, you need not tell lies about it; you have been eating meat, I know you have, no Negro could look as fat, and sleek, and black, and greasy as you if he had nothing to eat but corn bread and river chubs.... Let us know where you got the meat that you have been eating, and you shall not be whipped."[50]

As it turned out, Ball had been harvesting not cotton but fish, which he had transformed into bacon by means of barter. In the meat-poor agro-capitalist ecology of the Cotton Kingdom, slaves generally had a ready market for their game.[51] The sort of "outsourcing" represented by sanctioning supplemental provision patches or hunting for game contained troubling concealed costs, for what slaveholders saved in food, they sacrificed in discipline. Ball found a "fence" for his fish in the person of a white boatman, whose riverine business allowed him ready access to his neighbor's slaves.[52]

Author's Notes

49. Brown, "Narrative of William Wells Brown," 190; Hayden, Narrative of William Hayden, 25; Hughes, Thirty Years a Slave, 19; Green, Narrative of the Life of J. D. Green, 22; Parker, His Promised Land, 30; Olmsted, The Cotton Kingdom, 448; John Hebron Moore, The Emergence of the Cotton Kingdom in the Old Southwest: Mississippi, 1770–1860 (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1988), 155.

50. Ball, Fifty Years in Chains, 138, 142, 183–197, 220–225.

51. On slaves selling game, see Olmsted, The Cotton Kingdom, 448; and Hayden, Narrative of William Hayden, 25.

52. Ball, Fifty Years in Chains, 188–189, 192–193. See also Moore, The Emergence of the Cotton Kingdom in the Old Southwest, 155.

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Shortened citation:

Johnson, *River of Dark Dreams*, 230–231.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.59

Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made

Eugene D. Genovese

WORK	Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made
SELECTION	Part I, Of the God of the Living
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 162–163 · Pantheon Books, 1974.

Excerpt

The philosophical problem of religion, its truth and falsehood, represents a domain only partially separate from that of politics.' Since religion expresses the antagonisms between the life of the individual and that of society and between the life of civil society and that of political society, it cannot escape being profoundly political.' The truth of religion comes from its symbolic rendering of man's moral experience; it proceeds intuitively and imaginatively. Its falsehood comes from its attempt to substitute itself for science and to pretend that its poetic statements are information about reality. In either case, religion makes statements about man in his world—about his moral and social relationships—even when it makes statements about his relationship to God. Even when a man's adherence to a religion is purely formal or ritualistic, essential elements of his politics are thereby exposed, for participation in rites normally means participation in social acts that precede, rather than follow, individual emotional response. He enters, usually as a child, into a pattern of socially directed behavior that conditions his subsequent emotional development and that, from the beginning, presupposes a community and a sense of common interest.

Like all religion it laid down a basis for moral conduct and an explanation for the existence of evil and injustice. The religion of the slaves manifested many African "traits" and exhibited greater continuity with African ideas than has generally been appreciated. But it reflected a different reality in a vastly different land and in the end emerged as something new. If black religion in America today still echoes Africa and expresses something of the common fate of black people on four continents, it has remained nonetheless a distinct product of the American slave experience. It could not have been other.

Chicago Citations

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Eugene D. Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York: Pantheon Books, 1974), 162–163.

Shortened citation:

Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll*, 162–163.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.60

The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925

Herbert G. Gutman

WORK	The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925
SELECTION	Take Root There or Nowhere: I
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 133–134 · Pantheon Books (pb. Vintage), 1976.

Excerpt

That is why the similarities in behavior among the Cedar Vale, Good Hope, and Stirling slaves are so significant in examining the adaptive behavior of the slaves and in assessing the importance of slave beliefs. Nothing is known about the Good Hope and Stirling slaves before their names appeared in obscure birth registers, but the early Cedar Vale slaves who became the parents of two generations of Cohoon blacks had been scrambled together forcibly from diverse owners by a young Virginian's desire to become a planter. Most were the children of Afro-Americans and the descendants of men and women wrenched much earlier from West African familial and kin groups. Afro-American slaves were the initial victims of Cohoon's enterprise, and his over-all strategy worked well. At his death, he owned forty-seven slaves; his sons owned another eighteen. Measured by standards common to the slaveholding class, Cohoon, whose father had given him one slave, had done quite well. But measured by the standards common to the slave culture, the Cohoon slaves and those belonging to his sons also meaning. That culture was not merely a plantation culture. It was a slave culture. The behavior of the Cohoon slaves requires us to make that essential distinction. Historians frequently distinguish between the condition of plantation and farm slaves, an important one for many analytic purposes. The behavior of the Cohoon slaves, however, suggests that the distinction is inappropriate in discussing slave marital and sexual beliefs. Only the last generation of Cohoon slaves. were born plantation slaves. It is improbable that the detached individuals brought together by Cohoon's purchases at about the time of the War of 1812 had come from large plantations. Most probably came from smaller agricultural units.

South plantation over the next twenty or thirty years, a development that transformed their slave status. All who became adults in the 1830s and the 1840s also became large-plantation slaves. 'Their response to that transformation had its roots among slaves who had not been born large-plantation slaves and who carried into developing large plantations important slave beliefs unrelated in origin to large-plantation social experiences.

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Shortened citation:

Gutman, *The Black Family in Slavery and Freedom, 1750-1925*, 133–134.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.61

The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South

John W. Blassingame

WORK	The Slave Community: Plantation Life in the Antebellum South
SELECTION	The Slave Community
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 178–179 · Oxford University Press, 1979.

Excerpt

Many slaves were lucky enough to have masters who refused to intercede in family affairs. In order to relieve themselves of responsibility, many planters gave slave parents complete control of their children. Some masters did not punish slave children but instead asked their parents to do so. On Charles Ball's plantation the overseer did nothing to undermine the authority black males had in their families even when they beat their wives.^^ On large plantations and in cities the slaves were so rarely under the constant surveillance of their masters that there the black male faced no obstacle (other than his mate) in exercising authority in his family. While living in Baltimore, for instance, Noah Davis declared that he had "the entire control" of his family.^* There were several avenues open to the slave in his effort to gain status in his family. Whenever possible, men added delicacies to their family's monotonous fare of corn meal, fat pork, and molasses by hunting and fishing. If the planter permitted the his wife in this family undertaking. The husband could also demonstrate his importance in the family unit by making furniture for the cabin or building partitions between cabins which contained more than one family. The slave who did such things for his family gained not only the approbation of his wife, but he also gained status in the quarters.^^ According to William Green, in the view of the slaves when one tried to provide for his family in this manner: "the man who does this is a great man amongst them."^^ Sometimes, by extra work, slave men earned enough money to buy sugar and coffee for the family or to surprise their wives with scarves or dresses. Often, when masters did not provide adequate clothing for their slaves, black men bought clothes for their children and wives. Masters, not the black men, determined how much care and attention slave women received when they were pregnant and the treatment that infants received. During her pregnancy a slave wife usually continued her back-breaking labor until a few weeks before her child was born. Solicitous of the health of the new few days and often for weeks to nurse the infant. If he were especially interested in rearing slave children (and most masters were), he established a definite routine for nursing the child.

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Shortened citation:

Blassingame, *The Slave Community*, 178–179.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.62

American Slavery, 1619-1877

Peter Kolchin

WORK	American Slavery, 1619-1877
SELECTION	American Slavery
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 138–139 · Hill and Wang, 1993.

Excerpt

Historians examining the lives and behavior of antebellum slaves have disagreed on numerous points, but they have been virtually unanimous in finding that Elkins erred in depicting a world in which slaves had no "meaningful others" aside from their masters. Of course, slaves lived under widely varying conditions, and some may have experienced the totally controlled, "closed" system described by Elkins. For the vast majority, however, slavery never provided such a hermetically sealed environment; beings who were in theory totally dependent on their masters were able in practice to forge a semi-autonomous world, based on a multiplicity of social relationships, which accentuated their own distinctive customs and values. In this endeavor, they looked for support most of all to their families and their religion.

Families provided a crucial if fragile buffer, shielding slaves from the worst rigors of slavery. Although the transatlantic slave trade, exceptionally high mortality rates, and the excess of men over women among newly imported slaves decimated African families, the emergence of a predominantly creole slave population created the basic preconditions for family re-creation. A new African- American family structure took root in the eighteenth century and spread throughout the South, along with slavery, in the nineteenth. Those families were not, of course, untouched by slavery. Even under the best of circumstances, slave families lacked the institutional and legal support enjoyed by those that were free, and in extreme cases masters could not only hinder but prevent the development of normal family relations; Frederick Douglass, taken from his mother as an infant, recalled it as "a common custom, in the part of Maryland from which I ran away, to part children from their mothers at a very early age."4 But historians now know that in the South as a whole, separation of young children from their mothers was relatively unusual. Antebellum slaves lived in families, legally recognized or not, and the majority of slave children grew up with their mothers and—somewhat less often—their fathers.

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Shortened citation:

Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877*, 138–139.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.63

Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community

Vanessa M. Holden

WORK	Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community
SELECTION	Chapter 4, Generation, Resistance, and Survival
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages reflowed ebook; no fixed page numbers · University of Illinois Press, 2021.

Excerpt

Analyzing the roles that children played in African American communities in the antebellum South, as laborers in proximity to adults and as trial witnesses, brings a deeper understanding of the Southampton Rebellion. Free or enslaved, the children and youths of Southampton County were important to the event and to its traumatic aftermath. It is clear from the trials of Nathan, Tom, Davy, and Moses that adult male rebels decided to bring them along. Each witnessed violence and each suffered being severed from their community through transport after the rebellion. Whether they were rebels or witnesses, neither Black nor white adults overlooked them in the local context of the rebellion. Their role in their community involved observing adults as they resisted slavery.

Chicago Citations

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Holden, Vanessa M. *Surviving Southampton: African American Women and Resistance in Nat Turner's Community*. Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 2021.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.64

The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930

Anne Firor Scott

WORK	The Southern Lady: From Pedestal to Politics, 1830-1930
SELECTION	Discontent
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 53–54 · University of Chicago Press, 1970.

Excerpt

Few southern women appreciated the argument of a South Carolina gentleman who thought the availability of slave women avoided the horrors of prostitution. He pointed out that men could satisfy their sexual needs while increas ing their slave property.[29] The bitterness of southern women on this subject came out again and again. One spoke of "violations of the moral law that made mulattoes as com mon as blackberries," and suggested that the four years of bloody war was a fit penance for so many sins.[30] "I saw slavery in its bearing on my sex," wrote another. "I saw that it teemed with injustice and shame to all womankind and I hated it."

There was an undercurrent of concern about venereal disease. The fiction women wrote and read was full of myste riously disillusioned brides and dissolute men. A North Caro lina student in the 1840s could remark without comment that the university was "never free from clap." Conversely, the exaggerated praise heaped upon "pure" men reflected something more than admiration of good character. It was an index to the anxiety of women endangered by their husbands. Primitive medical knowledge offered little protec tion to the wives of men whose visits to the slave quarters left them diseased.

Author's Notes

29. Chancellor Harper, "Memoir on Slavery," Southern Literary Jour nal, February 1838, p. 1.

30. Rebecca Latimer Felton, Country Lije in Georgia, in the Days of My Youth, p. 79.

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Shortened citation:

Scott, *The Southern Lady*, 53–54.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.65

They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers

WORK	They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South
SELECTION	Chapter 3, Missus Done Her Own Bossing
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 60–61 · Yale University Press, 2019.

Excerpt

The confl icts that arose between Maria and Elisha Betts over matters largely related to slave mastery bedeviled other households in the South. This was especially true in cases where husbands and wives each owned personal slaves or when women owned slaves over which their husbands had no legal authority. Formerly enslaved people routinely refl ected upon encounters between slaveowning women, their spouses, their employees, and others. Although they rarely if ever used the term "master" to describe their female owners, formerly enslaved witnesses frequently characterized their mistresses as effective managers and disciplinarians and described their behavior with the same terms they used for slaveholding men. Harriet Collins spoke of her mistress as a "powerful manager" who "was sho' good… iffen you work and do like she tell you." Such a statement could be taken as referring simply to household management, but Collins also spoke of how her mistress managed her slaves beyond the household. Her mistress, recalled Collins, would "go round [the quarters] to see dat all was alright" each evening and was a "powerful good nuss" to boot. Collins's female owner, in fact, did more than a master; she assumed the responsibilities that mistresses, masters, and plantation overseers typically handled. Formerly enslaved people also remembered their female owners as powerful disciplinarians who used a variety of techniques that resembled those of male slave owners. Addy Gill was enslaved in Millburnie, North Carolina, and she recalled that her mistress Louise Krenshaw "done the whuppin on Mr. Krenshaw's plantation an she was mighty rough at times." As we shall see, other enslaved men and women recalled mistresses who meted out calculated, systematic, and rationalized violence and discipline, not as masters' subordinates and surrogates but as slave owners in their own right who possessed the authority to do so.[8]

But in their testimony formerly enslaved people emphasized that mastery did not always involve brute strength or physically violent methods of discipline. The (typically male) slaveholders who submitted commentary to the South's most widely circulating agricultural journals, such as DeBow's Review and the Southern Planter, generally agreed that the most skilled slave masters could command submission without resorting to brutality. By this argument, white women could also be masters of slaves without resorting to brutal methods of control.

Yet despite the recollections of formerly enslaved people concerning female owners who made sure they did their work, and despite contemporary recognition of white women as slave owners in their own right within southern communities and by courts, historians have contended that white women could not be true "masters" of slaves. They could be masters of household operations. They could be "fi ctive masters." They could be "masterful." But they did not possess the strength or power to make a servile class submit to their will. According to the historian Elizabeth Fox- Genovese, white women "could not exercise mastery of their own slaves, much less contribute to the control of the slaves in their communities" because "the law—not to mention the social emphasis placed on male governance of the household and its members—discouraged women from managing slaves." These social and legal impediments, she contends, "sharply limited the practical and psychological effectiveness of [slaveholding women's] discipline." Furthermore, enslaved people associated physical violence and punishment with white men, be they slave owners or overseers, a situation that undercut any attempts by white women to acquire mastery over their slaves. A white woman, even if she owned slaves, "was no 'massa.'" Yet Fox- Genovese admits that "as slaves would have been the fi rst to insist, and as both male and female slaveholders well knew, mistresses could very well be the devil. A mean

mistress stood second to no master in her cruelty, although her strength was less." This was particularly characteristic of white women's relationships with enslaved women in their household, for "on the grounds of physical strength they were less likely than men to kill them."[9]

Some historians contest the idea that women could not manage or discipline enslaved people effectively; however, they too differentiate between white women and white men's domination of enslaved people.[10] William Foster, for example, contends that slave- owning women developed and engaged in a uniquely female form of mastery, in which they interacted with and disciplined enslaved people as they would their own children.[11] But if we look carefully at slave- owning women's management styles, we fi nd that these differed little from those used by slaveholding men—and they rarely treated enslaved people like their children.

Author's Notes

8. Harriet Collins, in BS, vol. 16, Texas Narratives, Part 1, 243; Addy Gill, in BS, vol. 11, North Carolina Narratives, Part 1, 326.

9. Fox- Genovese, Within the Plantation Household, 97, 205–206, 61.

10. See, e.g., Glymph, Out of the House of Bondage, 18–32.

11. William Henry Foster, Gender, Mastery, and Slavery, 8, 15. On this point see also Walter Johnson, River of Dark Dreams, 192–198, and Ariela Gross, Double Character,

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.66

They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South

Stephanie E. Jones-Rogers

WORK	They Were Her Property: White Women as Slave Owners in the American South
SELECTION	Chapter 4, She Thought She Could Find a Better Market
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 82–83 · Yale University Press, 2019.

Excerpt

Formerly enslaved people frequently spoke about this more expansive slave market. For them, the slave market was a mobile, spatially unbounded economic network that connected urban commercial districts to plantation estates and incorporated boardinghouses, rural pathways, urban streets, taverns, and coffee shops, as well as holding pens and auction houses. They also saw slaveholding households—their porches, kitchens, dining rooms, and bedrooms— and the fi elds and the quarters, along with the pathways and roads surrounding them, as fundamental parts of the slave market. In all these places, slave- owning women orchestrated the sale and purchase of enslaved people. Not only did slave- owning women participate in the public haggling over black bodies in the slave pen, the slave yard, and the auction block, they frequently subjected enslaved people to the terror of the slave market in the privacy of their homes. While slave traders, auctioneers, and brokers prepared enslaved people for sale by the sides of country roads, in southern auction houses, and in slave- trading establishments, white women talked with friends and family members about their labor needs and their desire to buy or sell enslaved men, women, and children. They were often able to fulfi ll that desire without visiting a brick- andmortar marketplace because this process often took place—or at least began— in their homes.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.67

Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South

Deborah Gray White

WORK	Ar'n't I a Woman?: Female Slaves in the Plantation South
SELECTION	Chapter 1, Jezebel and Mammy: The Mythology of Female Slavery
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 27–28 · W. W. Norton, 1985.

Excerpt

The uniqueness of the African-American female's situation is that she stands at the crossroads of two of the most welldeveloped ideologies in America, that regarding women and that regarding the Negro. Although much of the race and sex ideas were molded into a peculiarly American mythology. As if by design, white males have been the primary beneficiaries of both sets of myths which, not surprisingly, contain common elements in that both blacks and women are characterized as infantile, irresponsible, submissive, and promiscuous. Both blacks and women have generally been dependent politically and economically upon white men. Both groups are consigned to roles that are subservient, both groups have shared a relationship of powerlessness vis-a-vis white males, and both groups, as a matter of automatic response, have been treated as outsiders and inferiors. [2] The black woman's position at the nexus of America's sex and race mythology has made it most difficult for her to escape the mythology. Black men can be rescued from the myth of the Negro, indeed, as has been noted, this seems to have been one of the aims of the historical scholarship on slavery in the aggressive, with things dominant. White women, as part of the dominant racial group, have to defy the myth of woman, confronts the biack woman. If she is rescued from the myth of the Negro, the myth of woman traps her. If she escapes the myth of woman, the myth of the Negro still ensnares her.

Author's Notes

2. William H. Chafe, *Women and Equality: Changing Patterns in American Culture* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1977), 49–50.

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CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.68

Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South

Elizabeth Fox-Genovese

WORK	Within the Plantation Household: Black and White Women of the Old South
SELECTION	Southern Women, Southern Households
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages 97–98 · University of North Carolina Press, 1988.

Excerpt

The complex class relations of southern society confronted slaveholding women with special problems. To take their own favorite example, plantation mistresses carried heavy responsibilities for overseeing the work of house slaves. The tensions between mistress and servant could run high, all the way from angry blows to companionship. The law—not to mention the social emphasis placed on male governance of the household and its members—discouraged women from managing slaves. The law never formally prohibited, and in fact the men's frequent absences encouraged, women's everyday management of plantations. But both the law and the tradition of male dominance sharply limited the practical and psychological effectiveness of their discipline. The master normally administered the heavy punishments, and the slaves knew it. Slave men often challenged masters and overseers, but usually not in the way that Hampton challenged Sarah Gayle. As slaves would have been the first to insist, and as both male and female slaveholders well knew, mistresses could be the very devil. A mean mistress stood second to no master in her cruelty, although her strength was less. Most mistresses managed slave women rather than slave men, for most of the house servants were female, and in the absence of the master most mistresses relied on overseers or drivers to discipline the field hands. Thus, although mistresses could and did brutally abuse their female slaves, on grounds of physical strength they were less likely than men to kill them. The plantation mistress's class and race enabled her to tell slaves what to do, to try to get them to do it, and to box or whip them if they did not. But her gender plainly informed them that she was no "massa."

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Fox-Genovese, *Within the Plantation Household*, 97–98.

CHAPTER 11 · SECONDARY SOURCE S11.69

Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South

Stephanie M. H. Camp

WORK	Closer to Freedom: Enslaved Women and Everyday Resistance in the Plantation South
SELECTION	CHAPTER THREE: The Intoxication of Pleasurable Amusement: Secret Parties and the Politics of the Body
SOURCE LOCATOR	Original pages no stable fixed page labels in supplied edition · University of North Carolina Press, 2004.

Excerpt

However, brutality did not constitute the whole of slaves' bodily experience. For those who encounter oppression through the body, the body becomes an important site not only of su√ering but also (and therefore) of enjoyment and resistance.∫ Studying the body through a framework of containment and transgression grants us access to new perspectives on resistance and the workings of gender di√erence within enslaved plantation communities.

The body, French historian Dorinda Outram has written, is at once the most personal, intimate thing that people possess and the most public. The body, then, can provide and has provided a "basic political resource" in struggles between dominant and subordinate classes. Second-wave feminists said that the personal is political, but earlier, C. L. R. James had already argued that the twentieth century's working people "are rebelling everyday in ways of their own invention" in order to "regain control over their own conditions of life and their relations with one another." James found that often "their struggles are on a small personal scale." Enslaved people's everyday battles for "regaining" a measure of "control" took place on very "personal" terrain: their bodies.Ω Thinking about enslaved bodies in space allows us to see them materially, to watch as the prime implement of labor in the Old South moved in ways inconsistent with the rigors of agricultural production. Attention to the body also facilitates thinking about issues beyond the material, such as the roles of movement and pleasure in the culture of opposition developed by enslaved people. A somatic approach, such as the one employed here, risks objectifying people, but my purpose is the opposite: to demonstrate how enslaved people claimed, animated, politicized, personalized, and enjoyed their bodies—flesh that was regarded by much of American society as no more than biddable property.

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